Chapter 4 — SOLID Principles

What you will learn. The five SOLID principles, one at a time and then together: for each, a plain definition, an everyday analogy, a broken and a refactored Java example, the rules behind it, its cost, and how to talk about it in an interview — plus the ideas SOLID is built on: **cohesion**, **coupling** and **separation of concerns**.

How to use this chapter. Read 4.1, then the principles in order (each sets up the next). 4.11 runs one class through all five — the best single thing to rehearse. 4.13–4.14 are about saying it out loud.

Run the code. Under `chapters/04-solid-principles/code/`, one package per topic; listings below show the essential lines (`javac` compiles, `java` runs, `-cp` says where the classes are):

```
javac --release 21 -d /tmp/lld_04 $(find . -name '*.java')
java -cp /tmp/lld_04 lld.ch04.srp.Main        # also: cohesion, coupling, soc, ocp, lsp, isp, dip, checkout
```

Package	What it shows
`lld.ch04.srp`	SRP: an `Employee` class split by actor
`lld.ch04.cohesion`	Low cohesion vs high cohesion
`lld.ch04.coupling`	Tight coupling vs loose coupling, in three steps
`lld.ch04.soc`	Separation of concerns: rules vs storage
`lld.ch04.ocp`	OCP: invoice formats behind an interface
`lld.ch04.lsp`	LSP: cars, the four contract rules, the history rule, birds and composition
`lld.ch04.isp`	ISP: fat printer interface, over-splitting, role interfaces
`lld.ch04.dip`	DIP: notifications, dependency injection, service locator, plug-ins
`lld.ch04.checkout`	One checkout class refactored through all five principles

A note on money. Every amount (pay, invoice totals, prices, balances, order totals) is a `java.math.BigDecimal` (Java's exact decimal type) built from a string (`new BigDecimal("19.99")`); any result that could gain decimals (multiplying by a rate) is rounded with `setScale(2, RoundingMode.HALF_EVEN)` — two places, "banker's rounding": an exact half such as 2.345 goes to the even neighbour, 2.34, so errors do not all lean one way. Adding/subtracting two-decimal amounts stays at two decimals. Never `double`: binary floating point cannot store 0.1 exactly (`0.1 + 0.2` prints `0.30000000000000004`) and the errors add up. One `BigDecimal` trap: `equals` compares scale (decimal places) too (`2.0` ≠ `2.00`), so compare with `compareTo` or `signum()`, as the code does.

4.1 What SOLID is and why you should learn it

What it is

SOLID is five design guidelines for object-oriented code:

Letter	Principle	The one-line rule
S	Single Responsibility Principle (SRP)	A class should have one reason to change.
O	Open/Closed Principle (OCP)	Add new behaviour by adding code, not by editing working code.
L	Liskov Substitution Principle (LSP)	A subtype must be usable anywhere its parent type is expected.
I	Interface Segregation Principle (ISP)	No client should be forced to depend on methods it does not use.
D	Dependency Inversion Principle (DIP)	Depend on abstractions, not on concrete details.

Terms used throughout:

- A **class** is a blueprint for objects; a **module** is a bigger unit (package, library, service).
- A **client** (**caller**) is any code using another piece of code.
- An **interface** is a list of methods a class promises, with no bodies (Java's `interface`); in design talk also "the methods a caller can see".
- An **abstraction** is an interface or abstract class (marked `abstract`: cannot be created directly, may leave methods to subclasses) — it says *what*, not *how*. A **concrete class** is one you can `new`.
- A **subtype** extends a class or implements an interface; what it extends/implements is its **parent** (base) type.



Figure — the five principles and the single rule each one states (course diagram)

The common thread: every principle **limits how far one change spreads**. SRP gives each class one owner; OCP lets you add instead of edit; LSP keeps a new subclass from breaking old callers; ISP stops a change in one method reaching callers that never use it; DIP stops a change in a low-level detail (a technical part such as a database driver) reaching business logic (the rules the application exists for, such as pricing).

History. Robert C. Martin ("Uncle Bob") collected the principles around 2000, most fully in the paper *Design Principles and Design Patterns* and the book *Agile Software Development: Principles, Patterns, and Practices* (2002); Michael Feathers noticed the initials spelled SOLID. Two ideas are older: Open/Closed from Bertrand Meyer (1988), Substitution from Barbara Liskov (1987).

The problem it solves

Working code must still change; without guidelines classes grow until one edit breaks three unrelated features. SOLID gives **cleaner code** (small focused classes), **flexibility** (features plug in without breaking old ones), **fewer bugs** (less touched per change), **reuse** (one-job classes fit unforeseen places), **easier change** (a shift lands in one place) and — the forgotten benefit — **a shared vocabulary**: "this class breaks ISP" is understood by all, so design disagreements are settled by argument, not taste.

How to use SOLID (the honest version)

1. Treat each principle as a **name for a problem**, not a rule to obey everywhere.
2. When code is painful to change, find the principle that names the pain.
3. Apply the fix **when a real change asks for it**, not in advance.
4. Always say the cost (more classes, interfaces, wiring — code that creates objects and connects them).

Applied without judgement, SOLID yields a maze of single-implementation interfaces; this chapter states each recommendation's cost with its benefit.

TL;DR

SOLID = five guidelines that keep one change from spreading. Use them to **diagnose**, apply them when a real change needs them, always state the cost.

4.2 Single Responsibility Principle (SRP)

What it is

Martin's first wording: **a class should have only one reason to change.** In *Clean Architecture* (2017) he sharpened it: **a module should be responsible to one, and only one, actor** — an **actor** being a person or group who can ask for a change. The everyday "every component should have one job" is a useful start but hard to measure.

> **Analogy: army knife vs kitchen knife.** A Swiss army knife (scissors, bottle opener, screwdriver) does many jobs, none best; a kitchen knife does one, cutting, excellently.

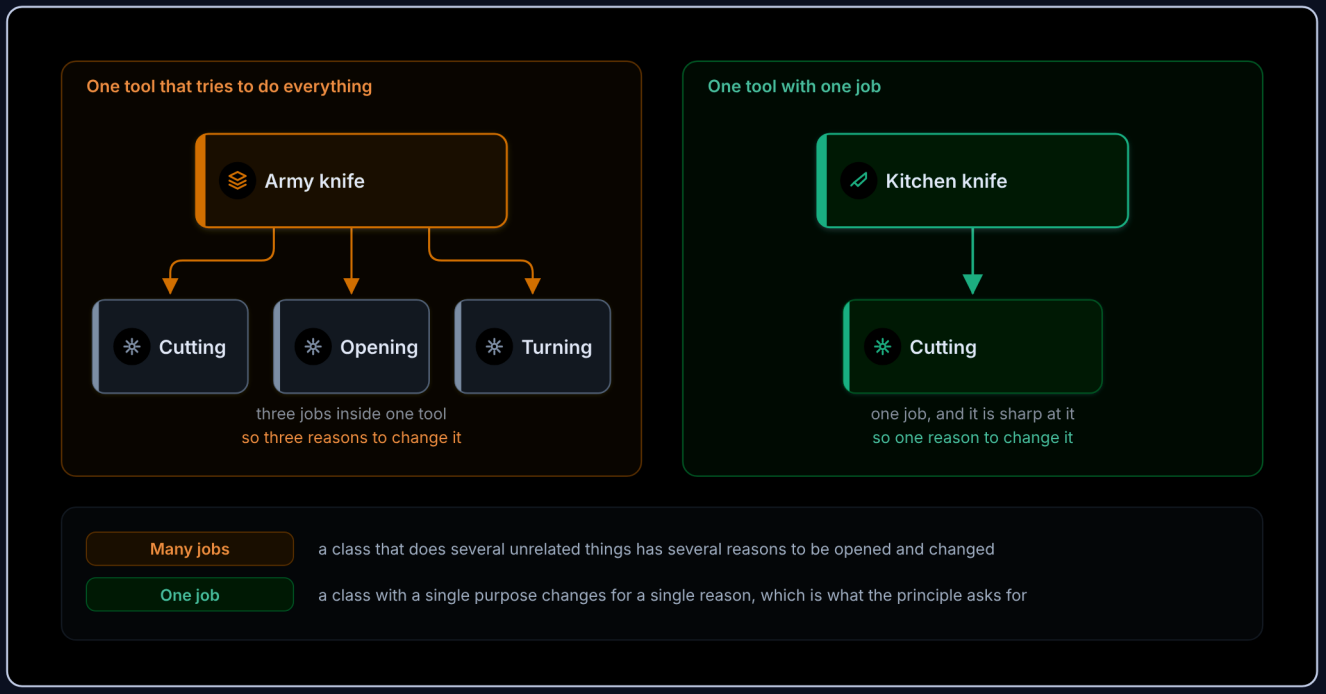


Figure — an army knife with three jobs (three reasons to change) next to a knife with one job (course diagram)

The army knife is the SRP-breaking class: three jobs, three reasons to change. "One job" is applied at every size — a **method** performs one action, a **class** serves one purpose, a **module** covers one area — but be precise: Martin's SRP is about **classes and modules** and their reasons to change; "a function should do one thing" is a separate (good) rule from *Clean Code*. Both push the same way; only the first is SRP.

The problem it solves

When one class serves several groups, every edit for one ships inside code the others rely on — a payroll tweak can break an operations report — and unrelated logic is mixed, so finding the right place is slow. One responsibility per class means you know which class to open.

What counts as one responsibility?

"Do one thing" has no size: is checking the email part of "register a user", or its own job? The **actor** view gives a yardstick: a reason to change comes from someone, so ask **who can send me a change request for this code?** Two groups → two responsibilities, however small the class.

`Employee` : every method is "about employees", so the "one thing" test passes. Now ask who can demand a change:

Method	Who asks for the change	Example request
`calculatePay`	Finance	"Overtime starts after 38 hours, not 40."
`reportHours`	Operations	"Show the week-ending date in the report."
`save`	Database team	"Move from SQL (table database) to a document store (stores JSON-like documents)."

Three owners, three independent reasons. A finance overtime change re-ships the report and storage code; if it breaks the report layout, operations pays for a decision it had no part in.

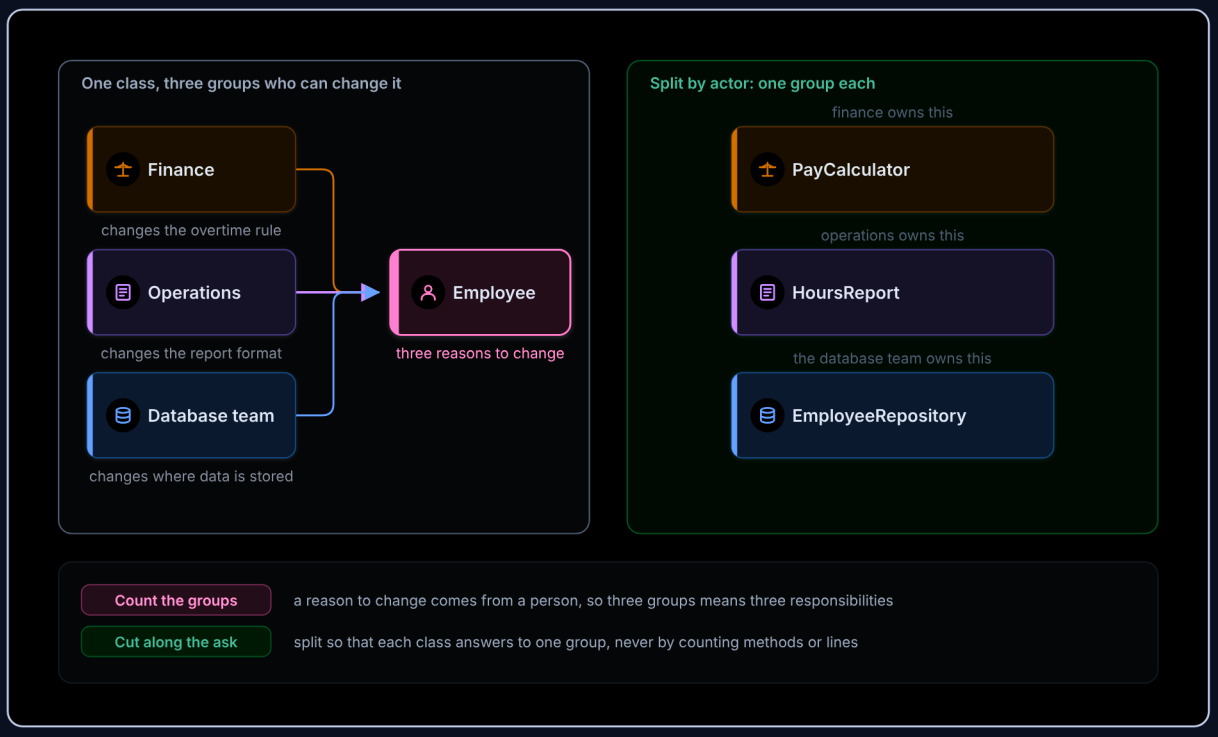


Figure — finance, operations and the database team all reach into one Employee class; splitting by actor gives each group its own class (course diagram)

Martin's sharper version (*Clean Architecture*): `calculatePay` and `reportHours` share a private helper `regularHours()` because the calculations match today. Finance changes it; the operations report silently shows wrong numbers. It looked like good reuse, but the two uses belonged to different actors — **accidental duplication**: code that looks the same but changes for different reasons should not be merged.

How it works

1. List the methods. 2. Name **who** would ask each to change. 3. Group methods by actor. 4. Move each group into its own class named after its job. 5. Keep plain data in a simple data class (a Java `record` : a compact class holding a fixed set of fields). 6. Verify with the three checks below.

Java example: splitting `Employee` by actor

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/srp/before/Employee.java — VIOLATION: three actors share one class
public class Employee {
    private final String name;
    private final int hoursWorked;
    private final BigDecimal hourlyRate; // money: BigDecimal, never double

    // Actor 1: Finance -- "overtime should start after 38 hours, not 40"
    public BigDecimal calculatePay() {
        int overtime = Math.max(0, hoursWorked - 40);
        int normal = hoursWorked - overtime;
        BigDecimal normalPay = hourlyRate.multiply(BigDecimal.valueOf(normal));
        BigDecimal overtimePay = hourlyRate.multiply(new BigDecimal("1.5"))
                .multiply(BigDecimal.valueOf(overtime));
        return normalPay.add(overtimePay).setScale(2, RoundingMode.HALF_EVEN);
    }
    // Actor 2: Operations -- "show the week-ending date in the report"
    public String reportHours() { return name + " worked " + hoursWorked + " hours"; }
    // Actor 3: Database team -- "move from SQL to a document store"
    public void save() { System.out.println("INSERT INTO employees VALUES ('" + name + "')"); }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/srp/after/ — data in a record, one class per actor
public record Employee(String name, int hoursWorked, BigDecimal hourlyRate) { }

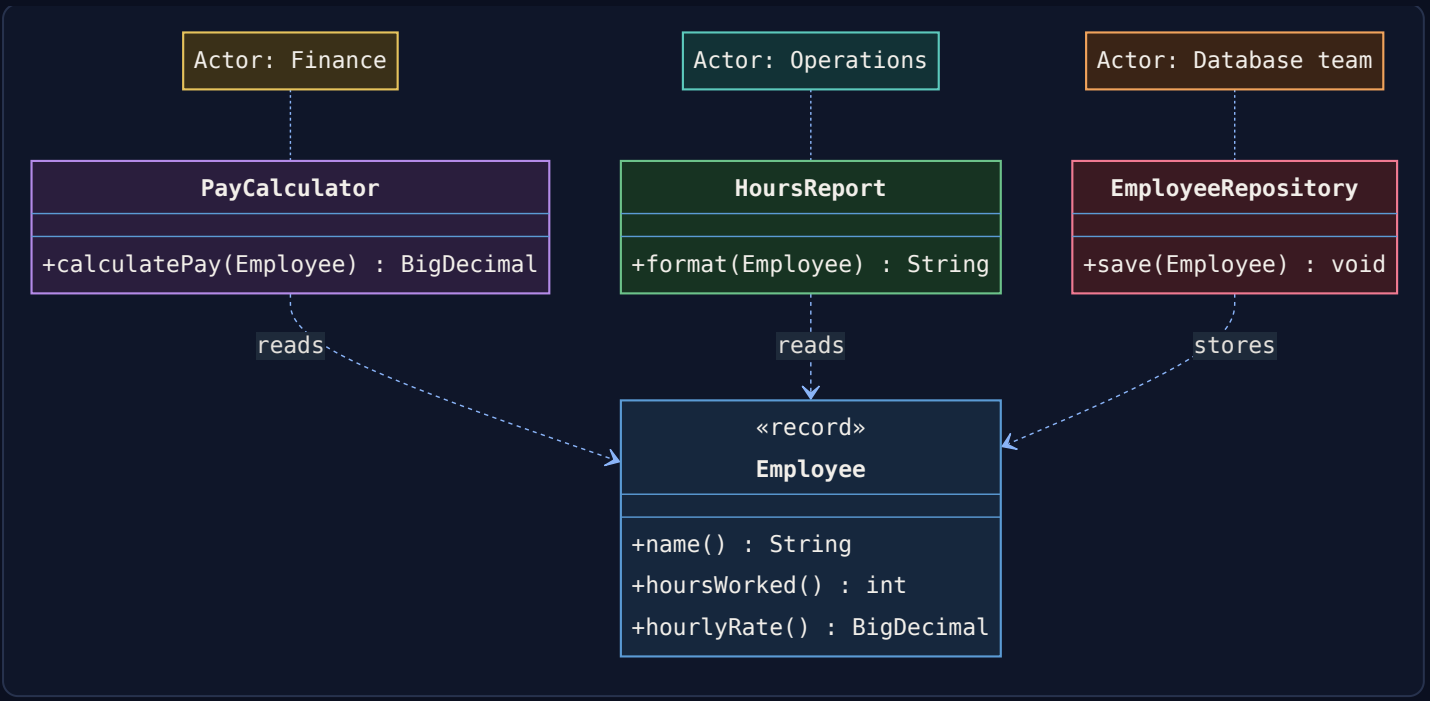
public class PayCalculator {                                // only Finance
    private static final int OVERTIME_THRESHOLD = 40;
    private static final BigDecimal OVERTIME_MULTIPLIER = new BigDecimal("1.5");
    public BigDecimal calculatePay(Employee e) { /* same formula, using the named constants */ }
}
public class HoursReport {                                  // only Operations
    public String format(Employee e) { return e.name() + " worked " + e.hoursWorked() + " hours"; }
}
public class EmployeeRepository {                           // only the database team
    public void save(Employee e) { System.out.println("INSERT INTO employees VALUES ('" + e.name() + "')"); }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/srp/Main.java — runs both versions for Ada, 45 hours at 20.00, printing pay, report, save
```

Output:

```
--- Before: one class, three actors ---
Pay: 950.00
Ada worked 45 hours
INSERT INTO employees VALUES ('Ada')
--- After: split by actor ---
Pay: 950.00
Ada worked 45 hours
INSERT INTO employees VALUES ('Ada')
```

- `Employee` is a `record` — an immutable (unchangeable after creation) data carrier; no rule lives there, so no actor edits it for a rule change.
- `PayCalculator` belongs to finance; threshold and multiplier are named constants, so the next finance request is a one-line change in one class. `HoursReport` → operations; `EmployeeRepository` → database team.
- Output is **identical** before and after: behaviour did not change, only who must be consulted before an edit.



Where splitting goes wrong

Badly applied SRP is **worse** than none: a big class chopped by verb (one class per method or step) without asking who owns what gives tiny classes that must always be edited together, spreading each change over half a dozen files. Three checks:

1. **Do the pieces change together?** Read the version-control log (history kept by a tool such as Git; each **commit** is one saved change): classes in nearly every commit together were one responsibility cut in two.
2. **Does each new class's name stand on its own?** `EmployeePayCalculator` describes a job; `EmployeeHelper` / `EmployeeUtils` describe nothing.
3. **Could it be used elsewhere?** A pay calculator could serve a payroll export, a contractor quote, or a unit test (a small automated test of one class alone); no imaginable second caller → question the split.

Splitting does not automatically reduce dependencies: the two classes still call each other, and if the extracted one was shaped around its origin's exact needs, changes drag both along. The split is step one; step two is what each may know about the other — **cohesion** (4.3) and **coupling** (4.4). SRP usually helps both but promises neither.

Why SRP is important

Simpler maintenance (one job: easy to understand, debug, change); reuse; scales with the codebase (features add classes instead of bloating old ones); **high cohesion**; and it **opens the door to low coupling without finishing the job** — separation gives a seam (a boundary where one side can be swapped without editing the other), but coupling drops only when the dependency across it points at an abstraction (4.4).

Trade-offs

You gain	You pay
A change requested by one group touches only that group's code	More classes and files to navigate
Smaller classes are easier to test in isolation	The caller now wires several objects together
Clear ownership (who reviews what)	Risk of over-splitting into classes that always change together

When not: when you cannot name two different actors (then you do not know where the seam is); short-lived code like a one-off script; pieces that always change together anyway.

Common mistakes

- **Splitting by counting methods or verbs** instead of by actor; **Helper/Utils classes** that exist only because something had to move somewhere.
- **Merging "duplicate" code belonging to different actors** (the `regularHours()` trap).
- **"SRP means one method"** — ten methods can be one responsibility; **confusing SRP with "a function should do one thing"** (*Clean Code*; SRP is about reasons to change).

Code smells that point to SRP (from *Refactoring*)

A **code smell** is a surface sign of a probable design problem; *Refactoring* is Martin Fowler's book naming common smells and step-by-step fixes (refactorings).

- **Divergent Change** — one class edited for many kinds of reasons: SRP broken.
- **Large Class** — too many fields and methods, often several jobs.
- **Shotgun Surgery** — one change forces small edits in many classes: often **over-splitting**, the opposite mistake.
- Usual fix: **Extract Class** (and **Move Function**/**Move Field**).

Real-world examples

- **Spring layers** (Spring: a popular Java framework): `@Controller` handles HTTP (the web's request/response protocol, see System Design Fundamentals), `@Service` business rules, `@Repository` persistence (saving data permanently, usually in a database) — each answering a different kind of change.
- **JDK:** `java.time.format.DateTimeFormatter` formats/parses; `LocalDate` holds the date — formatting changes never touch the value type.
- **Logging frameworks** (Logback, Log4j 2) split *logger* (what), *appender* (where) and *layout* (how it looks): a new format does not touch destination code.

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "SRP says a class should have one reason to change. The sharp version is: one actor, one group of people who can request changes. I find the actors by asking who would ask for each method to change. If finance, operations and the DBAs (database administrators) can all ask for edits to `Employee`, I split it into `PayCalculator`, `HoursReport` and `EmployeeRepository`, and keep `Employee` as data. The cost is more classes and some wiring, so I only split when I can name the different groups."

- *"Would you always split?"* — No. If the halves always change together, I've made two files for nothing; I split when two different people can ask for two different changes.
- *"How do you know you split too far?"* — The pieces share commits, their names only make sense together (`XHelper`), and nothing else could use them.
- *"Is SRP about methods?"* — It applies to methods, classes and modules, but the test is reasons to change, not method count.

Self-check

1. **Q:** An "actor" in SRP? **A:** A person or group who can request a change, e.g. finance or the database team.
2. **Q:** A `ReportService` formats a report and emails it — SRP problem? **A:** Yes, if different people own wording and delivery: they change for different reasons.
3. **Q:** The three checks for a good split? **A:** Change together? Names stand alone? Usable elsewhere?
4. **Q:** Does splitting always lower coupling? **A:** No. If the new class names a concrete collaborator the dependency just moved; point it at an abstraction.

TL;DR

One class, one actor. Find the actors, split along them, keep data in a record, check the split, and do not split what always changes together.

4.3 Cohesion

What it is

Cohesion is how closely the contents of one class (module, method) belong together. **High**: every method works toward one purpose. **Low**: unrelated jobs bundled together. Analogy: a **garbage dump** (plastic, paper, food in one pile) vs **sorted bins**, one job each.

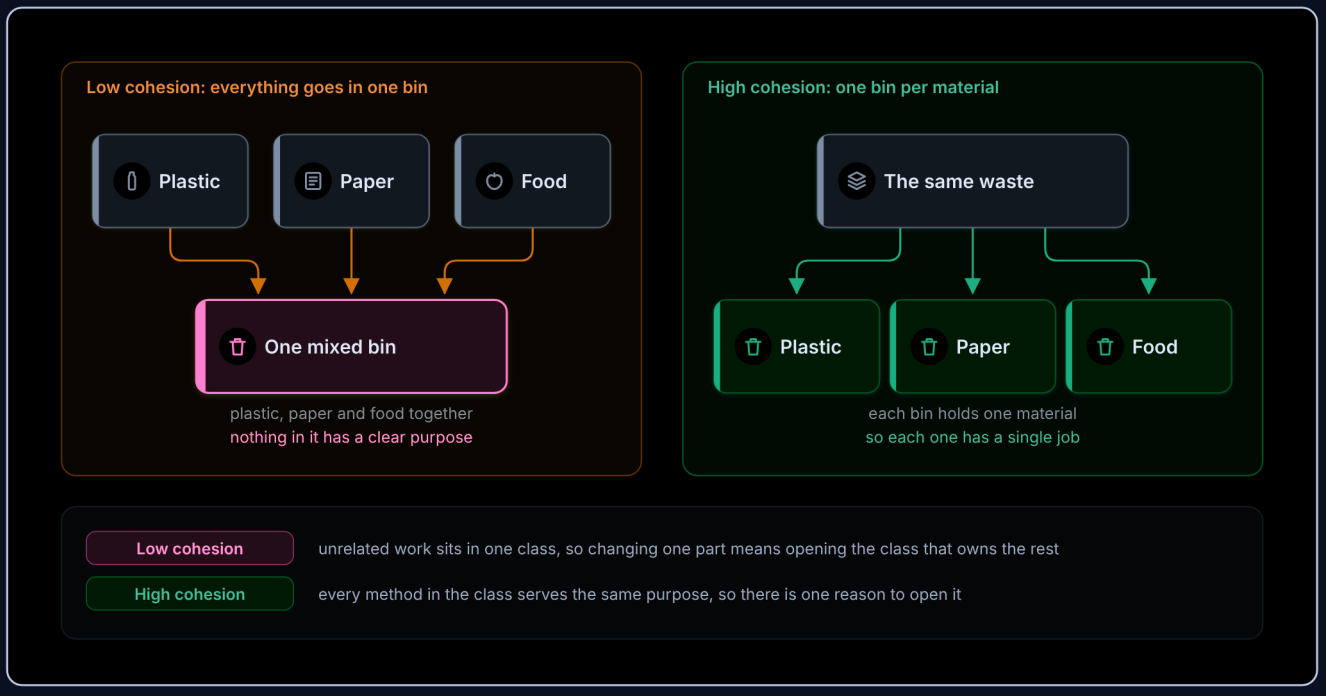


Figure — one mixed bin (low cohesion) next to one bin per material (high cohesion) (course diagram)

The problem it solves

In a low-cohesion class, changing one job means opening, reading and redeploying (releasing to production again) a class owning others. It also works in reverse: code for **one** job **scattered** over classes (`addUser` here, `deleteUser` there) must be hunted down for each change. Both are cohesion problems — mixing unrelated things, or separating related ones.

The classic types of cohesion

Structured-design authors (Larry Constantine, Ed Yourdon, Glenford Myers, 1970s) ranked cohesion worst to best:

Type (worst → best)	What groups the code	Java-flavoured example
Coincidental	Nothing, it just ended up together	`Utils` with `formatDate`, `sendEmail`, `parseCsv`
Logical	Same category, chosen by a flag	`handle(type)` with a big `switch` over unrelated actions
Temporal	Things that run at the same time	`startup()` that opens the DB, warms caches (fills fast temporary copies of data) and prints a banner
Procedural	Steps that follow an order	A method that validates, then logs, then retries
Communicational	Work on the same data	`ReportBuilder` methods that all read the same `Order` list
Sequential	Output of one step is input to the next	`parse → validate → transform` pipeline in one class
Functional (best)	Everything contributes to one well-defined task	`PayCalculator`

No need to memorise: aim for **functional**, recognise **coincidental** (the "Utils" class) as a warning.

How it works

Check which fields each method uses; if methods fall into groups using **different** fields for **different** purposes, cohesion is low — move each group to its own class. If one job is scattered over classes, gather it into one.

Java example

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/cohesion/before/UserManager.java — LOW cohesion: two disjoint groups
public class UserManager {
    private final List<String> users = new ArrayList<>();       // used by addUser/deleteUser
    private final List<String> auditLines = new ArrayList<>();  // used by writeToFile/readFromFile
    public void addUser(String user)    { users.add(user);    System.out.println("user added: " + user); }
    public void deleteUser(String user) { users.remove(user); System.out.println("user deleted: " + user); }
    // --- file work, unrelated to the two methods above ---
    public void writeToFile(String line) {
        auditLines.add(line);
        System.out.println("wrote a line to the audit file: " + line);
    }
    public List<String> readFromFile() {
        System.out.println("read " + auditLines.size() + " line(s) back from the audit file");
        return List.copyOf(auditLines);
    }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/cohesion/after/ — HIGH cohesion: the same methods split into
//   UserManager (users; addUser, deleteUser) and AuditFile (lines; writeLine, readAll), same messages.
// Main runs: add "ada", write "created ada", delete "ada", read back — once per version.
```

Output:

```
--- Before: one class, two unrelated jobs ---
user added: ada
wrote a line to the audit file: created ada
user deleted: ada
read 1 line(s) back from the audit file
--- After: two classes, one job each ---
user added: ada
wrote a line to the audit file: created ada
user deleted: ada
read 1 line(s) back from the audit file
```

Identical output; the difference is structural — a new audit-log format edits `AuditFile` alone. **Cost:** the caller creates and holds two objects, worth it once the jobs change for different reasons.

Cohesion and SRP: low cohesion usually means several unrelated jobs (breaks SRP); high cohesion means one job (what SRP asks), so aiming for it tends to give SRP for free.

Trade-offs

High cohesion gains	Costs
Easy to name, read and test each class	More classes to wire
A change lands in one class	Callers may hold several objects

When not: do not split a functionally cohesive class just to make it smaller; five tiny classes can be harder to follow than one clear one.

Common mistakes

- Calling every mixed class a "coupling problem": one class mixing jobs is a **cohesion** problem; coupling needs two classes.
- A `Utils` dumping ground (coincidental cohesion).

Real-world: `java.lang.Math` — static math functions, functional cohesion around "numeric calculations"; `java.util.Collections` is looser (sorting, searching, wrapping, synchronising) — still "operations on collections", but showing how a utility class drifts toward logical cohesion.

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "Cohesion is how much the things inside one class belong together. I check which fields each method uses. If the methods split into two groups that touch different fields for different reasons, the class has low cohesion and I split it. High cohesion is basically SRP seen from inside the class."

- *"Is a big class always low-cohesion?"* — No; if every method serves one task it is cohesive even if large. Size is a hint, not the measure.

Self-check

1. **Q:** Worst kind of cohesion? **A:** Coincidental: grouped for no reason, like `Utils`.
2. **Q:** "The code for one job is spread over three classes" — cohesion problem? **A:** Yes; related code should live together.

TL;DR

Cohesion = do the parts of this class belong together? One purpose per class; split disjoint groups; gather scattered pieces.

4.4 Coupling

What it is

Coupling is how much one class depends on another. It describes a pair: a lone class cannot be "tightly coupled" (nothing else to depend on).

- **Low (loose)**: change, replace or test one class without changing the other.
- **High (tight)**: a change to one forces a change to the other.

> **Analogy: TV and remote.** A remote for one specific TV, and a TV accepting only that remote, are tightly coupled — replace one, replace both. A universal remote and a TV accepting any remote follow a shared standard (the infrared signal) and swap independently.

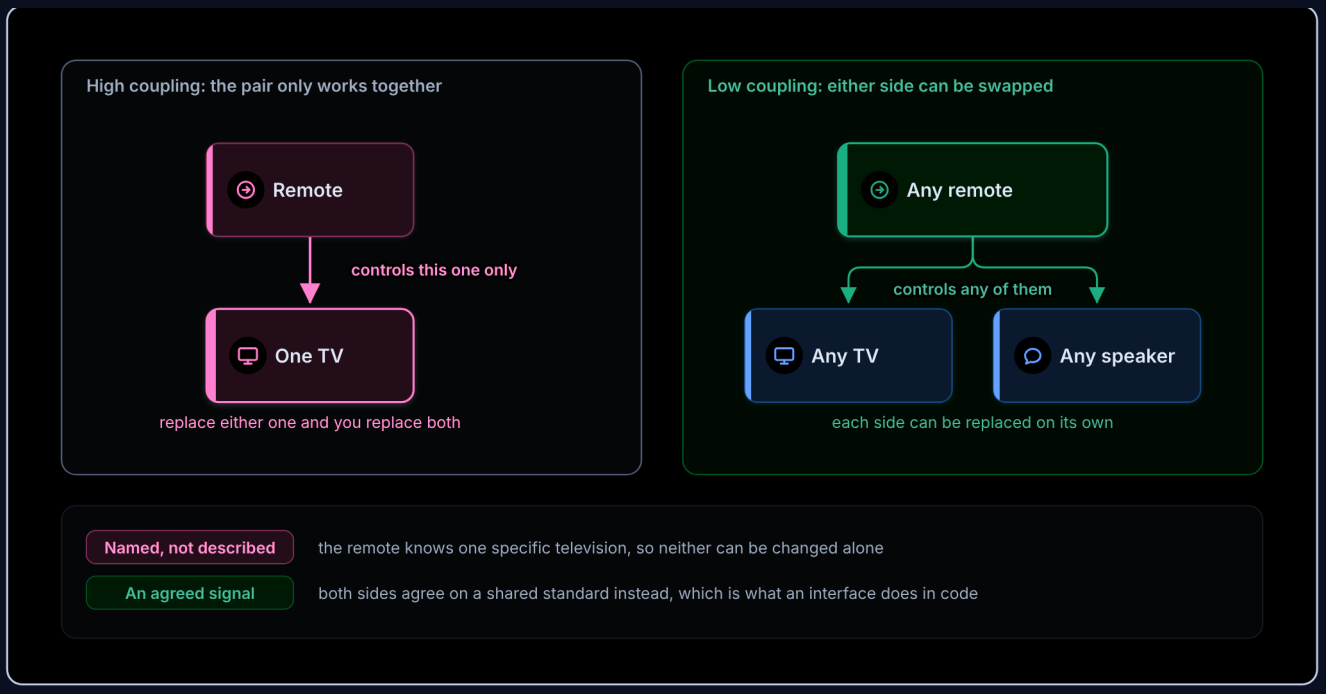


Figure — a remote tied to one TV (high coupling) vs any remote working with any device through an agreed signal (low coupling) (course diagram)

The "agreed signal" is exactly what an **interface** does: both sides agree on a contract instead of knowing each other.

The problem it solves

With tight coupling you cannot swap an implementation (MySQL → Postgres, two popular SQL databases) without editing the caller; cannot unit-test the caller without the real dependency (a running database); and a change in how the dependency is **constructed** ripples into every class that builds it.

The classic types of coupling

From structured design, worst to best:

Type (worst → best)	What A knows about B	Java-flavoured example
Content	A reaches into B's internals	Reflection (Java's ability to inspect and change classes while running) that sets B's private field
Common	A and B share global mutable data	Both read/write a `public static Map`
External	Both depend on an external format or device	Both parse the same hand-rolled file format
Control	A passes a flag telling B *how* to work	`print(doc, boolean asPdf)`
Stamp	A passes a whole structure when B needs one field	`sendInvoice(Customer c)` that only reads `c.email()`
Data	A passes only the values B needs	`sendInvoice(String email, Money total)`
Message (lowest)	A sends a message through an interface	`notifier.send(message)` on an interface

Practical OO goal: **depend on interfaces, pass only what is needed, never share mutable globals.**

How it works

1. Find where A **names** B (a field type, `new B()`, a static call `B.x()`).

2. Ask: does A need *this particular* B, or *something that does the job*?
3. If the latter, describe the job as an interface; let A accept any implementation, usually through its constructor.
4. Let the caller (or the entry point, the `main` method where the program starts) choose the implementation.

Java example: three steps with `Student`

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/coupling/start/Student.java — ONE class, two jobs: a COHESION problem (nothing to couple to yet)
public void save() {                                  // Student holds the data AND knows how to store it
    System.out.println("Connecting to MySQL...");
    System.out.println("Saving student with ID: " + studentId);
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/coupling/extracted/Student.java — Step 1: cohesion fixed, but TIGHT coupling
private final MySqlDatabase database = new MySqlDatabase(); // hard-wired; MySqlDatabase.saveStudent prints the same lines
public void save() { database.saveStudent(studentId); }

// File: code/lld/ch04/coupling/decoupled/ — Step 2: depend on an interface -> LOOSE coupling
public interface StudentRepository { void save(String studentId); }   // what Student needs, as a contract
// MySqlStudentRepository.save prints "Saving student <id> to MySQL";
// InMemoryStudentRepository keeps ids in a list, prints "Keeping student <id> in memory for a test", saved() returns them
public class Student {
    private final String studentId;
    private final StudentRepository repository;
    public Student(String studentId, StudentRepository repository) {
        this.studentId = studentId;
        this.repository = Objects.requireNonNull(repository);
    }
    public void save() { repository.save(studentId); }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/coupling/Main.java (step 2 part)
new Student("S-1024", new MySqlStudentRepository()).save();
var fake = new InMemoryStudentRepository();
new Student("S-2048", fake).save();
System.out.println("test double recorded: " + fake.saved());
```

Output:

```
--- Start: one class holds data and SQL ---
Connecting to MySQL...
Saving student with ID: S-1024
--- Step 1: extracted, but tightly coupled to MySqlDatabase ---
Connecting to MySQL...
Saving student with ID: S-1024
--- Step 2: depends on the StudentRepository interface ---
Saving student S-1024 to MySQL
Keeping student S-2048 in memory for a test
test double recorded: [S-2048]
```

After step 1, three costs: storing anywhere else edits `Student`; every test needs a live MySQL server; if `MySqlDatabase` gains constructor arguments, `Student` changes too. The extraction moved the code but `Student` **depends** on it as much as before.

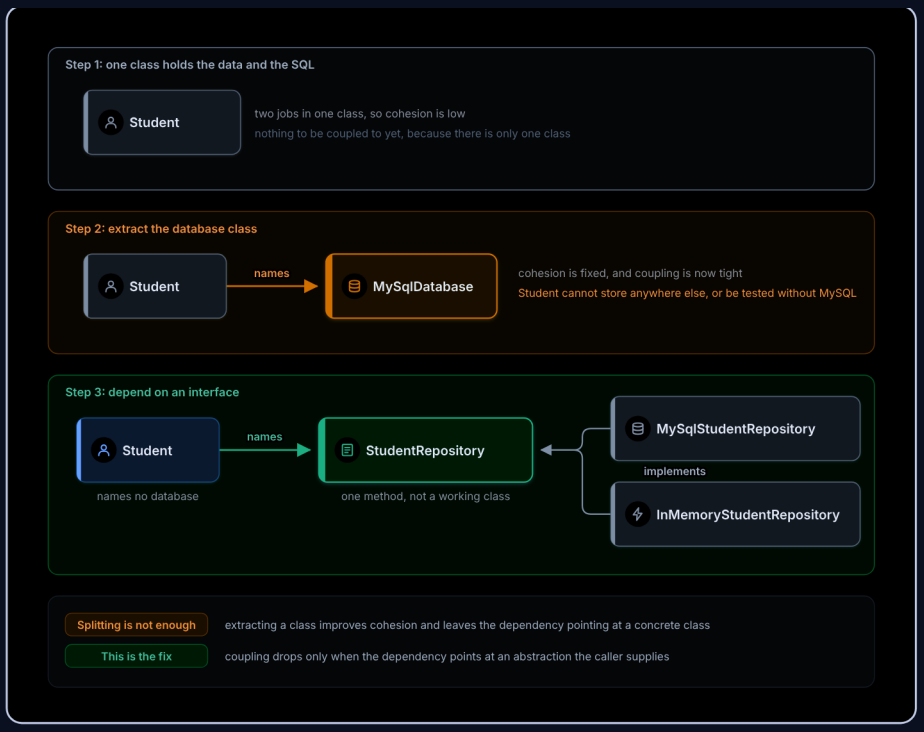


Figure — the three steps: one class with two jobs, an extracted but tightly coupled class, and a class that depends on an interface (course diagram)

In the last panel `Student` names only `StudentRepository`, a one-method contract, and the concrete repositories point *toward* it: Postgres is a new repository class handed in by the caller, and a unit test hands in the in-memory one. This is **depend on abstractions, not concrete classes** — the D in SOLID (4.10), the standard cure for tight coupling.

Coupling and SRP: separating the jobs (SRP) fixed cohesion but left `Student` welded to `MySqlDatabase`; aiming the dependency at an interface fixed coupling, a step SRP alone never requires. So SRP *usually* reduces coupling (a single-job class needs fewer collaborators) without *guaranteeing* it — inspect dependencies after each split.

Trade-offs

Loose coupling gains	Costs
Swap implementations without editing callers	An extra interface and a constructor parameter
Unit tests with in-memory fakes (stand-ins keeping data in a list instead of a database)	Someone must do the wiring (the entry point or a framework)
Changes stop rippling	"Go to definition" lands on an interface, one more hop to the real code

When not: no interface in front of a **stable** class that never varies or needs faking (`String`, `LocalDate`, a pure calculation) — coupling to stable things is harmless; one implementation and no test double (fake stand-in used in tests) is usually just an extra file.

Common mistakes

- "I extracted a class, so coupling is lower" — only depending on an abstraction lowers it.
- `new ConcreteThing()` hidden in a constructor — still hard-wired.
- Passing whole objects when one field is needed (stamp coupling).

Real-world: **JDBC** (Java Database Connectivity): code uses the interfaces `java.sql.Connection`, `Statement`, `ResultSet`; the MySQL or Postgres driver (library speaking one database's protocol) implements them. **SLF4J** (a logging facade — one front for several libraries): code uses

`org.slf4j.Logger`; Logback or Log4j is plugged in at deployment (when installed and started). **USB, HTTP, SQL** are themselves "agreed signals".

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "Coupling is how much one class depends on another. I check where a class names a concrete collaborator. If it only needs something that does the job, I describe the job as an interface and pass the implementation in. That lets me swap MySQL for Postgres and test with an in-memory fake. I do not add interfaces in front of stable things like `String`."

- *"Can SRP increase coupling?"* — Yes: extract a class built around the old class's exact needs and the two are tightly bound. Check dependencies after every split.

Self-check

1. **Q:** Can a single class be "tightly coupled"? **A:** Not to anything inside itself; coupling is between two things. One class with two jobs has a cohesion problem.
2. **Q:** `Student` does `new MySqlDatabase()` in its constructor — tight or loose? **A:** Tight: it names and creates a concrete class.
3. **Q:** "Control coupling"? **A:** Passing a flag telling the other code how to behave, e.g. `print(doc, asPdf)`.

TL;DR

Coupling = how much A must know about B. Loosen it by depending on an interface and passing the implementation in. Extracting a class alone is not enough.

4.5 Separation of Concerns (SoC)

What it is

Separation of Concerns: split a program into parts that each handle one **concern** — one area of the work (storing data; deciding whether an email is acceptable; drawing the screen). Term from Edsger Dijkstra (1974). Analogy: in a restaurant the kitchen cooks, waiters serve, the cashier takes payment; a new menu does not change payment.

The problem it solves

Mixed concerns force you to read and edit code about other concerns for each change; separated, each change lands in one module. Benefits: **modularity** (each part one area), **maintainability** (changes rarely affect others), **reusability** (well-defined modules reused), **testability** (test one concern with the others replaced by stand-ins).

How it works

1. List the feature's concerns (registration: storage, business rules). 2. Give each its own module. 3. Let modules talk only through small, clear methods. 4. Test it: for each likely requirement change, **count the modules you would edit** — ideally one.

Java example: user registration

Storage keeps users and never judges validity; **business rules** decide what is acceptable and ask storage to save, without knowing how it works.

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/soc/UserStore.java — storage concern only
public record User(String username, String email) { }
private final List<User> users = new ArrayList<>();
public void addUser(String username, String email) {
    users.add(new User(username, email));
    System.out.println("Stored user: " + username);
}
// count() returns users.size()

// File: code/lld/ch04/soc/UserService.java — business-rules concern only
boolean isValidUsername(String username) { return username.length() >= 3; }
boolean isValidEmail(String email) { return email.contains("@") && email.contains("."); }
public boolean registerUser(String username, String email) {
    if (!isValidUsername(username)) { System.out.println("Rejected: " + username + " is too short"); return false;
}
    if (!isValidEmail(email)) { System.out.println("Rejected: " + email + " is not an email address"); return
false; }
    store.addUser(username, email);
    return true;
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/soc/Main.java
UserStore store = new UserStore();
UserService service = new UserService(store);
service.registerUser("ada", "ada@example.com");
service.registerUser("jo", "jo@example.com");
service.registerUser("grace", "grace-at-example");
System.out.println("Users in store: " + store.count());
```

Output:

```
Stored user: ada
Rejected: jo is too short
Rejected: grace-at-example is not an email address
Users in store: 1
```

Every accept/reject decision was `UserService`'s, which never touched the list; `UserStore` kept whatever it was handed.

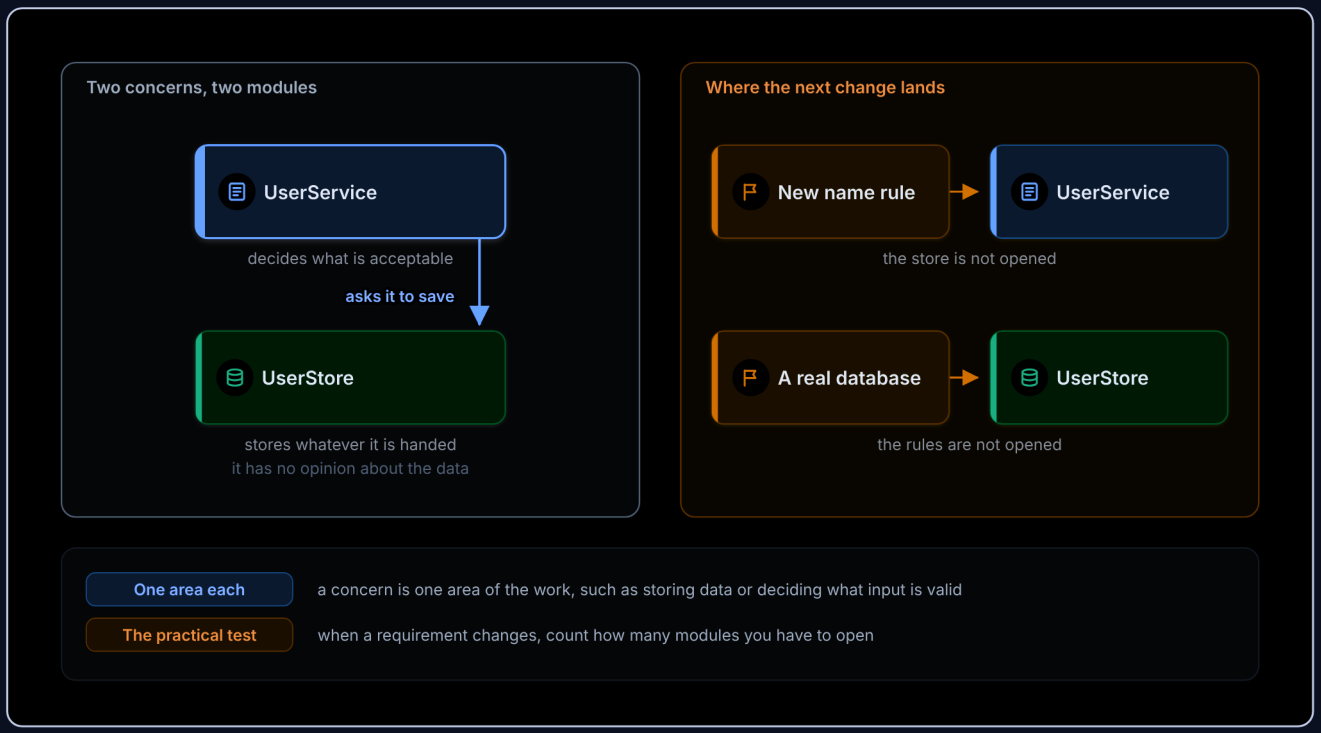


Figure — UserService decides what is acceptable and asks UserStore to save it; each change lands in one module (course diagram)

Change	Module you open
Move from an in-memory list to a real database	`UserStore` only
Require usernames of at least eight characters	`UserService` only
Test the rules without a database	Pass `UserService` a stand-in store

(In a bigger system `UserStore` would also sit behind an interface — the 4.4 coupling fix.)

SoC and SRP: the same instinct at different scales — SRP for a class, SoC for modules, layers and subsystems; single-responsibility classes are one route to separated concerns.

Trade-offs

Gains	Costs
Changes stay local	More modules and boundaries to design
Each concern tested alone	Cross-cutting concerns (logging, security, transactions — groups of database changes that succeed or fail together) still touch many modules; they need special tools such as aspects (code woven automatically around many methods) or decorators (wrappers that add behaviour)

When not: a 50-line script needs no layers; separate concerns when they change for different reasons or at different speeds.

Common mistakes

- Validation quietly inside the storage class ("the DAO also checks the email"; a DAO, Data Access Object, reads and writes one kind of data in the database).
- Layers that exist on paper but call each other in every direction.

Real-world: **MVC** (Model–View–Controller: model = data and rules, view = display, controller = input), followed by Spring MVC and most web frameworks; **HTML / CSS / JavaScript** — structure, style, behaviour in three languages; **layered architecture** controller → service → repository; **Spring** `@Transactional` separates transaction handling (cross-cutting) from business code via a proxy (a stand-in wrapping the real object, adding behaviour before and after each call).

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "Separation of concerns means each module handles one area of the work, like storage vs business rules. My test is: when a requirement changes, how many modules do I open? Ideally one. It is SRP at module size."

Self-check

1. **Q:** A "concern"? **A:** One area of the work: storage, validation, presentation.
2. **Q:** SoC vs SRP? **A:** Mostly size: SRP a class, SoC modules and layers.

TL;DR

One module per area of work; measure it by how many modules a change forces you to open.

4.6 SRP vs cohesion vs coupling vs SoC — one table

Idea	Question it asks	Scope	How it relates to SRP
SRP	How many actors can ask this class to change?	Class / module	—
Cohesion	Do the parts of this class belong together?	Inside one unit	Applying SRP usually raises cohesion, because one job means related parts.
Coupling	How much does A depend on B?	Between two units	SRP tends to lower coupling but does not guarantee it; you still need to depend on abstractions.
SoC	Is each area of work in its own module?	Modules, layers	SRP applied to every class is one way to achieve SoC.

The textbook goal, **"high cohesion, low coupling"**: SRP gets the first half; depending on abstractions (DIP) the second.

4.7 Open/Closed Principle (OCP)

What it is

Software entities (classes, modules, functions) should be open for extension but closed for modification: add new behaviour **by adding code**, without editing working code.

- **Closed for modification**: once written and tested, a class need not be opened for the next variation — every edit risks breaking it.
- **Open for extension**: new behaviour arrives as new parts, via **interfaces**, **polymorphism** (one call, many implementations) or **inheritance**.

Origins. Bertrand Meyer, 1988 (*Object-Oriented Software Construction*): in **Meyer's OCP** a class is *closed* once compiled, published and used (changed only for bug fixes) and *open* because a new class can **inherit** from it and add or redefine features — extension by implementation inheritance. Robert C. Martin's 1996 article gave the **polymorphic OCP**: stable code depends on an **abstract interface**; new behaviour arrives as swappable implementations. The polymorphic version is what people usually mean today and what this chapter uses.

> **Analogy: a game console.** You add a racing wheel, motion controller, VR headset; nobody rewires the console. It is **closed** (internals sealed) and **open** (a standard port for accessories).

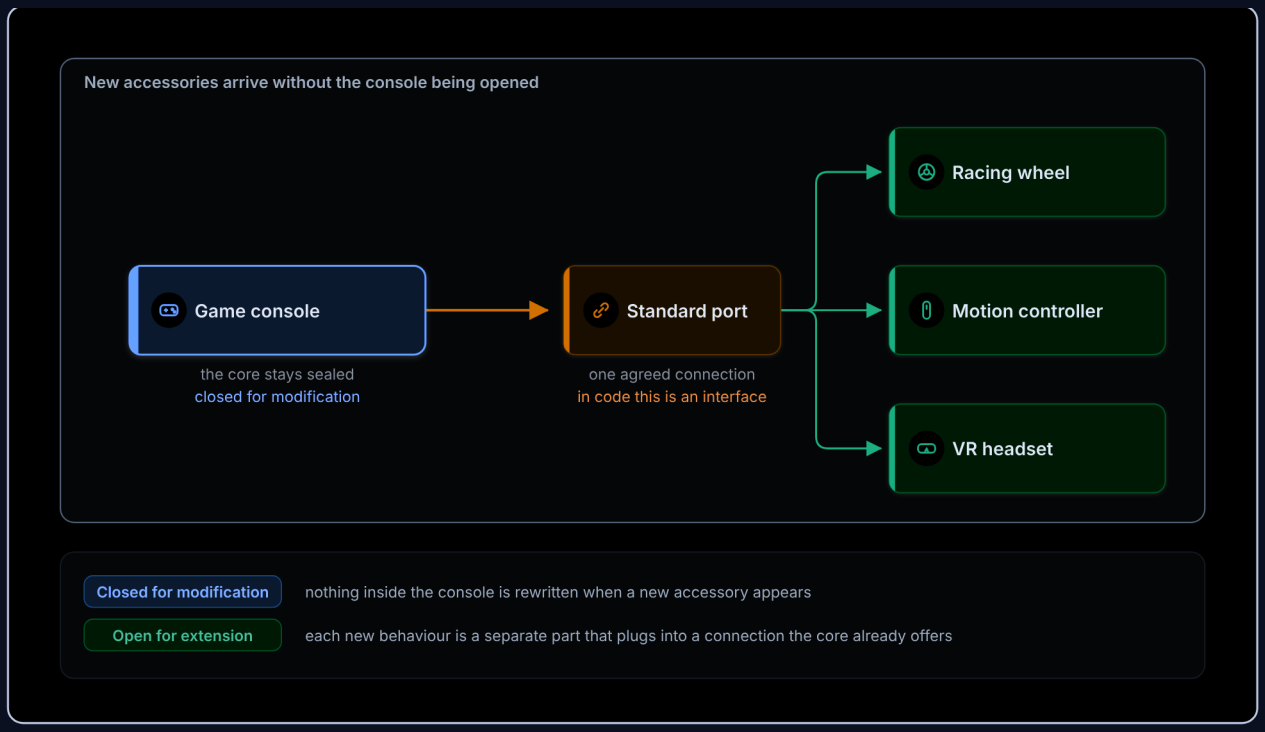


Figure — new accessories plug into a standard port; the console itself is never opened (course diagram)

The **standard port** is the interface; accessories are classes implementing it.

The problem it solves

The textbook symptom is a growing `if/else` or `switch` on a type code: each new case edits a tested method and can break the others, and the same `switch` often appears in several places, one copy missed. **Quick test:** *can I add the next case without opening this file?* If not, the class is not closed against that kind of change.

How it works

1. Wait until the variation has happened (at least a second case). 2. Identify **the part that varies** (the invoice format). 3. Describe it as an interface. 4. Move each variant into its own implementing class. 5. Make the stable class **delegate** (hand the work over) instead of branching. 6. Add the next variant as a new class; nothing existing opened. 7. Choose the variant in one place at the program's edge (entry point, a factory — a method or class whose job is creating objects — a map, or configuration).

Java example: invoice formats

Before. With one format there was nothing to fix (OCP matters only for code receiving variations). Then sales wants **international invoices**, and the quick route is a type parameter and a branch:

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/ocp/before/Invoice.java — VIOLATION: every new type opens this tested method
public void generate(String invoiceType) {
    if (invoiceType.equals("basic")) {
        System.out.println("Generating basic invoice for amount: " + amount);
    } else if (invoiceType.equals("international")) {
        System.out.println("Generating international invoice for amount: " + amount);
    } else {
        throw new IllegalArgumentException("Unknown invoice type: " + invoiceType);
    }
}
public void applyDiscount() { System.out.println("Applying discount on invoice: " + amount); }
```

Doing two jobs would be an SRP complaint; the OCP complaint is that **each new type edits code that already works**.

After. (1) The varying part becomes an interface; (2) each format gets a class — named *generators*, since they *produce* invoices (`BasicInvoice` would falsely suggest a subtype); (3) `Invoice` delegates; (4)

a third format costs one class plus one line where formats are chosen.

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/ocp/after/InvoiceGenerator.java — Step 1
@FunctionalInterface
public interface InvoiceGenerator { void generate(BigDecimal amount); }

// Step 2: BasicInvoiceGenerator prints "Generating basic invoice for amount: " + amount;
// InternationalInvoiceGenerator prints the international line + "  including customs declaration and currency
conversion"
// File: code/lld/ch04/ocp/after/DetailedInvoiceGenerator.java — Step 4: the ONLY new code for a third format
public class DetailedInvoiceGenerator implements InvoiceGenerator {
    @Override public void generate(BigDecimal amount) {
        System.out.println("Generating detailed invoice for amount: " + amount);
        System.out.println("  line items, tax breakdown and payment terms");
    }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/ocp/after/Invoice.java — Step 3: delegates; knows nothing of how many formats exist
public class Invoice {
    private final BigDecimal amount;
    private final InvoiceGenerator generator;              // both requireNonNull in the constructor
    public void generate() { generator.generate(amount); } // no branching
    // Still closed? No -- a new discount rule would still edit this class.
    // That is fine until discounts actually start to vary.
    public void applyDiscount() { System.out.println("Applying discount on invoice: " + amount); }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/ocp/Main.java — amount 120.00; old.generate("basic"/"international") first, then:
List<InvoiceGenerator> generators = List.of(
        new BasicInvoiceGenerator(),
        new InternationalInvoiceGenerator(),
        new DetailedInvoiceGenerator(),
        // A lambda is also an extension: no new file, no edited file.
        a -> System.out.println("Generating pro-forma invoice for amount: " + a));
for (InvoiceGenerator g : generators) new Invoice(amount, g).generate();
```

Output:

```
--- Before: branch per type ---
Generating basic invoice for amount: 120.00
Generating international invoice for amount: 120.00
--- After: one class per format ---
Generating basic invoice for amount: 120.00
Generating international invoice for amount: 120.00
  including customs declaration and currency conversion
Generating detailed invoice for amount: 120.00
  line items, tax breakdown and payment terms
Generating pro-forma invoice for amount: 120.00
```

`Invoice` has **no branch**; format three touched no existing class; and since `InvoiceGenerator` is a `@FunctionalInterface` (exactly one abstract method), a **lambda** (a short inline unnamed function, `a -> ...`) is also an extension — OCP with zero new files.

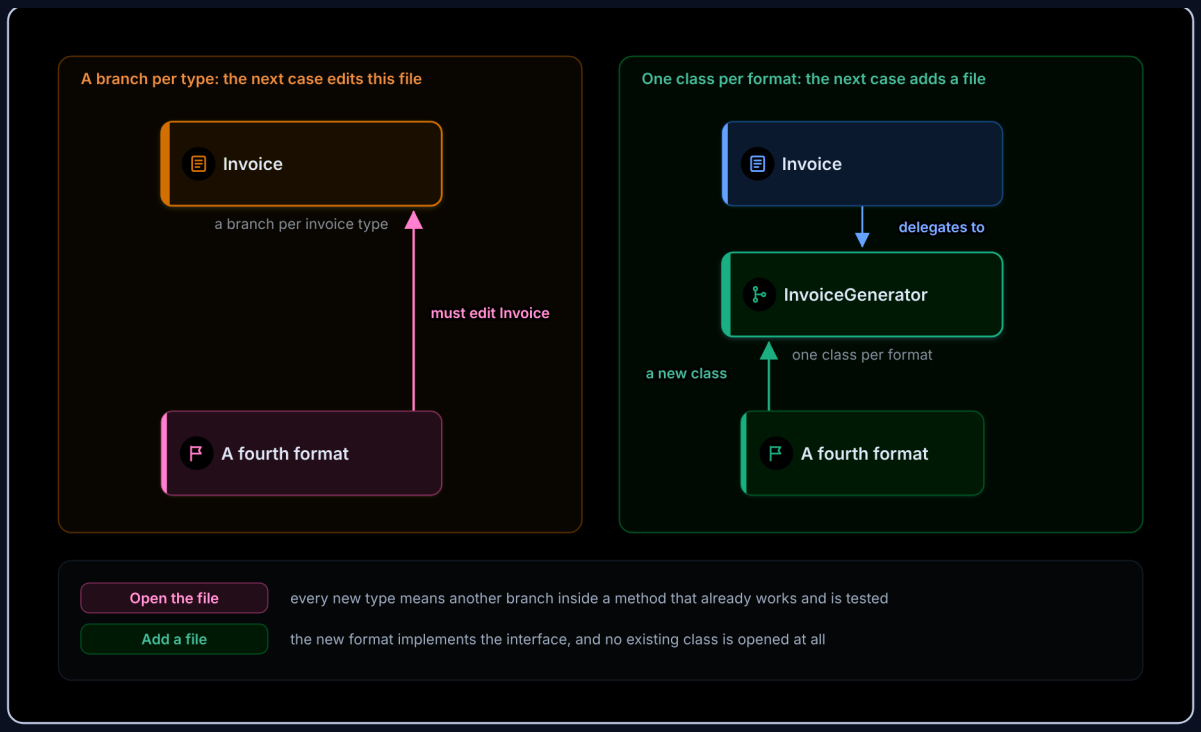
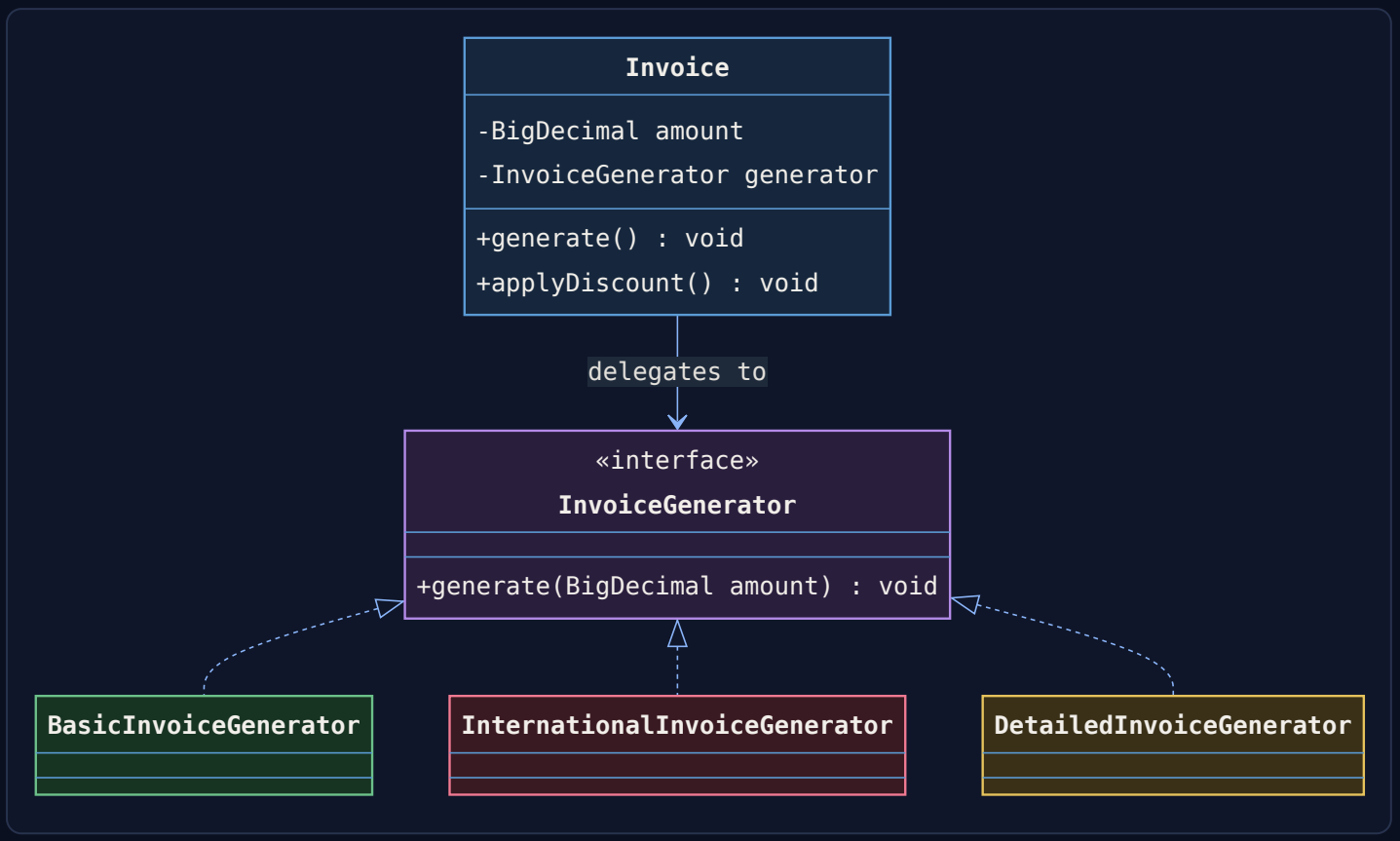


Figure — a branch per type forces an edit to Invoice; one class per format lets a new format be added as a file (course diagram)



This shape — a context object holding an interface-typed field with interchangeable implementations — is the **Strategy pattern** (a named reusable design; Chapters 8–11): OCP applied to an algorithm that varies.

Why not just subclass `Invoice`?

`class InternationalInvoice extends Invoice` overriding `generate()` is also OCP-compliant (Meyer's original style) and fine in a small program. Delegation wins as the system grows:

- **A second dimension of change.** Format **and** currency: subclassing needs a class per pairing (3 formats × 4 currencies = 12); delegation combines two independent objects (3 + 4 = 7).

- **Deciding at run time.** An object's class is fixed at `new`; a generator can be picked once the customer's country is known, even replaced later.

(*Head First Design Patterns* calls this "favour composition over inheritance".)

What is still not closed

Only *generation* was opened up; a new discount kind still edits `Invoice`, and that is fine. **"Closed" is never absolute: a class is closed against a specific kind of change**, normally one already seen. Martin calls this **strategic closure**: no program can be closed against every change, so the designer chooses which, guided by experience.

Approaches to OCP

Approach	How it extends	Pattern / Java feature	Good when
Interface + delegation	New class implements the interface	Strategy, `Comparator`	The algorithm varies, choose at run time
Inheritance + overriding	Subclass overrides a hook method (an overridable step the parent calls)	Template Method, abstract classes	Fixed skeleton, a few steps vary
Wrapping	New class wraps the old and adds behaviour	Decorator (`BufferedInputStream`)	Add features around existing behaviour
Listening	New subscriber registers	Observer, event listeners	New reactions to existing events
Plug-ins / registry	New implementation registers itself in a map or via `ServiceLoader` (Java's built-in way to discover implementations at start-up)	Plug-in architecture	Third parties add features
Functions	Pass a lambda	`java.util.function` , `@FunctionalInterface`	Small, one-method variations
Data / configuration	New entry in a table or config file	Rules engines, feature flags (on/off switches kept in configuration)	Variations that are just different numbers

The `switch` does not always vanish: it moves to **one** place at the edge — a factory or a `Map<String, InvoiceGenerator>` — instead of repeating in business logic.

Why it matters: extensibility (features without touching the tested core); **faster testing** (test the new class; core tests stay valid); **fewer regressions** (old features breaking after a change); **adaptability** (new requirements without rewrites).

Caution: do not over-engineer

- **Start simple:** write the `if` first; introduce the interface when the second or third case actually arrives (the "rule of three").
- **Balance:** too many abstraction layers make code harder to read, defeating the purpose.
- **Real needs only:** extension points for futures that never come are waste — *Refactoring*'s **Speculative Generality** smell.

OCP and SRP reinforce each other: OCP pulls changing parts away from the stable core, each into a single-job class (SRP). In practice SRP comes first — the extension point stays hidden until the class is down to one job.

Trade-offs

You gain	You pay
New variants without editing old code	An interface plus one class per variant
Each variant tested on its own	Behaviour is spread over files; reading the whole flow takes more hops
Variants selectable at run time	Someone must choose the variant (factory, map, DI, i.e. dependency injection, Section 4.10)

When not: nothing has varied yet; the "variants" are just different numbers (use data); the set of cases is fixed, small and will not grow (the two values of a boolean). For a fixed set, Java 21's **sealed interfaces with pattern-matching** `switch` (a sealed interface lists the only types allowed to implement it, so a `switch` can check all are covered) fit well: the compiler checks every case — the opposite trade (easy to add operations, hard to add types).

Common mistakes

- "OCP means never edit a file" — bug fixes, refactoring and changes to the extension point itself all edit.
- Plug-in systems for one implementation; a `switch` in business logic replaced by a `switch` in five factories.

Smells and refactorings: Repeated Switches (*Switch Statements* in *Refactoring*'s first edition); fixes **Replace Conditional with Polymorphism**, **Replace Type Code with Subclasses**.

Real-world: `list.sort(comparator)` never changes — pass a new `Comparator`; **Java I/O decorators** — `new BufferedInputStream(new FileInputStream(f))` adds buffering without editing `FileInputStream`; **Servlet filters / Spring** `HandlerInterceptor` (code running before and after every web request) — new cross-cutting behaviour is a filter registered in a chain; **JDBC drivers** via `ServiceLoader` — a new database is a driver JAR (zipped bundle of compiled classes), not an edit to `DriverManager`; **IDE plug-ins** (IntelliJ, VS Code) and **browser extensions** — closed core, plug-in API as the port.

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "OCP says you should be able to add the next variation by adding code, not editing working code. When I see a `switch` over a type that keeps growing, I put the varying behaviour behind an interface, one class per variant, and the stable class delegates to it. That is Strategy. I only do it once the variation has actually appeared, and I say that a class is closed against a specific kind of change, not against everything."

- *"Does OCP mean you never edit a class?"* — No: the next variation of a known kind is an addition; bug fixes and refactoring still edit.
- *"Inheritance or delegation?"* — Both satisfy OCP; delegation handles several axes of variation and run-time choice better.
- *"Interface for pricing up front?"* — Only if pricing has varied or clearly will; otherwise leave the `if` and refactor at the second case.
- *"Trucks are charged a different rate."* — A design that answers "add a class" beats "add a branch in this switch".

Self-check

1. **Q:** "Closed for modification"? **A:** Adding the next variation does not edit tested code.
2. **Q:** After the refactor, is `Invoice` closed against new discount rules? **A:** No, only new formats — fine until discounts vary.
3. **Q:** "OCP for an algorithm"? **A:** Strategy.
4. **Q:** Quick OCP test? **A:** "To add the next case, must I open this file?"

TL;DR

Put the varying part behind an interface, add variants as new classes, choose them at the edge — when variation is real. Closure is always against a specific kind of change.

4.8 Liskov Substitution Principle (LSP)

What it is

Objects of a subtype must be usable wherever objects of the parent type are expected, without making the program incorrect. Barbara Liskov introduced the idea in a 1987 keynote; with Jeannette Wing she defined it precisely (1994) as *behavioural subtyping*. Martin's short form: **subtypes must be substitutable for their base types.** "Substitutable" means more than "it compiles": code written against the parent must still get **correct results** with a child.

> **Analogy:** a hire-car firm promises "a car that takes petrol"; hand over an electric car and the promise is broken at the petrol station, though an electric car is certainly a car.

The problem it solves

Polymorphism works only if callers can trust the base type. If a subclass secretly behaves differently, every caller must check which one it got (`instanceof`), and the benefit of polymorphism — and of OCP — is gone.

Example 1: `Car` and `ElectricCar`

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/lsp/car/before/ — Car prints "Car is starting/stopping/refueling"
public class Car {
    public void start()  { System.out.println("Car is starting"); }
    public void stop()   { System.out.println("Car is stopping"); }
    /** Names a MECHANISM (liquid fuel) instead of a goal. */
    public void refuel() { System.out.println("Car is refueling"); }
}
/** VIOLATION: inherits a promise (refuel) it cannot keep. */
public class ElectricCar extends Car {
    @Override public void refuel() { throw new UnsupportedOperationException("Electric cars don't need
refueling"); }
    public void recharge() { System.out.println("Electric car is recharging"); }
}
```

Code that *knows* it holds an `ElectricCar` calls `recharge()` and never notices — but `refuel()` is still on the object's public face. LSP is tested by code that does **not** know the subclass: `service(Car car)` in `Main` calls `start` , `refuel` , `stop` on any `Car` , and crashes for an electric one.

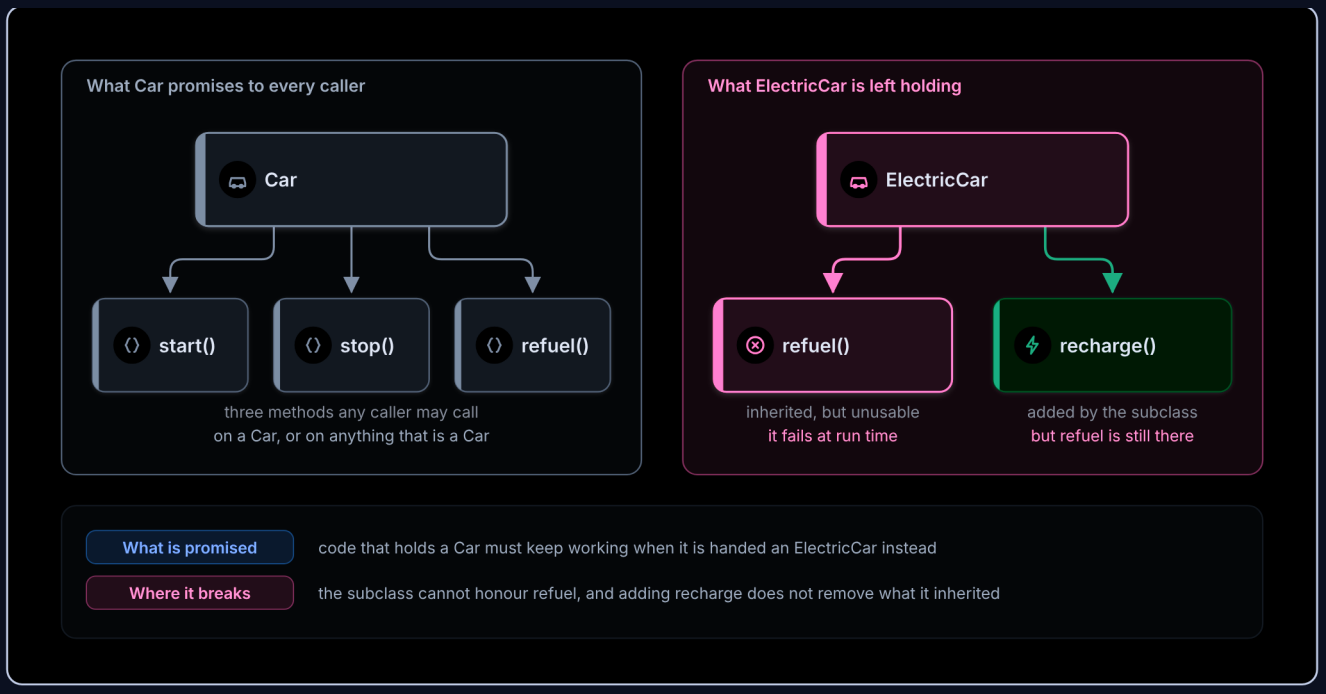


Figure — what Car promises every caller, and the unusable refuel() that ElectricCar is left holding (course diagram)

Name the real mistake. "`ElectricCar` should not extend `Car`" is half the diagnosis. The root cause: `refuel()` describes a **mechanism** (pouring in liquid fuel) only some vehicles use. A base-class method should describe the shared **goal**: every vehicle takes on energy, so `replenishEnergy()`.

The fix: raise a general parent. `Vehicle` declares the goal; `Car` and `ElectricCar` both extend it and **neither extends the other**:

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/lsp/car/after/ — the base type promises the GOAL, not one mechanism
public abstract class Vehicle {
    public void start() { System.out.println(getClass().getSimpleName() + " is starting"); }
    public void stop()  { System.out.println(getClass().getSimpleName() + " is stopping"); }
    public abstract void replenishEnergy();
}
public class Car extends Vehicle {
    @Override public void replenishEnergy() { System.out.println("Car is pumping gasoline"); }
}
public class ElectricCar extends Vehicle {          // a sibling of Car, not a child
    @Override public void replenishEnergy() { System.out.println("Electric car is charging its battery"); }
}
```

- **The easy workaround is still wrong.** Keeping `refuel()` and having `ElectricCar.refuel()` secretly charge removes the exception, but the name keeps lying about half the fleet; renaming fixes the promise itself.
- **Why not just add `recharge()`?** Code typed as `Vehicle` cannot call it; callers may depend only on what the base type declares.
- **Substitution is child → parent, never between siblings.** `Car` and `ElectricCar` each replace a `Vehicle`; neither replaces the other.

When to break a hierarchy: a subclass **cannot implement** a parent method (throws or does nothing); a base method describes a **mechanism**, not a goal; callers **test the type** (`if (v instanceof ElectricCar)`) — the base promises too little or the wrong thing; subclasses share almost nothing, so the parent invents a relationship. Usual fixes: **raise a general parent** (above) or **move the varying behaviour out of the hierarchy** with composition (next).

Example 2: birds, and composition instead of inheritance

`fly()` on `Bird` makes penguins inherit and reject it. The fault is `Bird`'s promise, not the penguin (*Refactoring*: a subclass not wanting what it inherits is the **Refused Bequest** smell).

- **Inheritance is is-a**: `Sparrow extends Bird` receives **every** `Bird` method, suitable or not.

- **Composition is has-a**: `Bird` holds a `MovementStyle` field and calls it, inheriting nothing from it.

Fix: make "how a bird moves" its own small type, given via the constructor — **no bird subclasses** at all.

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/lsp/birds/inheritance/ — Bird.fly() prints getClass().getSimpleName() + " is flying";
// Sparrow extends Bird { }  Penguin overrides fly() to throw UnsupportedOperationException("Penguins can't fly")

// File: code/lld/ch04/lsp/birds/composition/
@FunctionalInterface
public interface MovementStyle { void move(String birdName); }      // the behaviour that varies
// Flying -> "<name> is flying through the air"; Swimming -> "... swimming through the water";
// Running -> "... running along the ground"
public final class Bird {                    // a bird HAS-A movement style; nothing inherited, nothing refused
    private final String name;
    private MovementStyle movement;          // requireNonNull in constructor and changeMovement
    public void eat() { System.out.println(name + " is eating"); }
    public void travel() { movement.move(name); }                              // tell, don't ask
    public void changeMovement(MovementStyle movement) { this.movement = Objects.requireNonNull(movement); }  // e.g. an injured bird
}
```

`Bird` now promises only what every bird can do (`eat()`, `travel()`), so nothing must be refused; flight is an optional object some birds get. The ostrich took one new movement style, not an `Ostrich` subclass with a meaningless `fly()`; and the style can be replaced at run time (`changeMovement`).

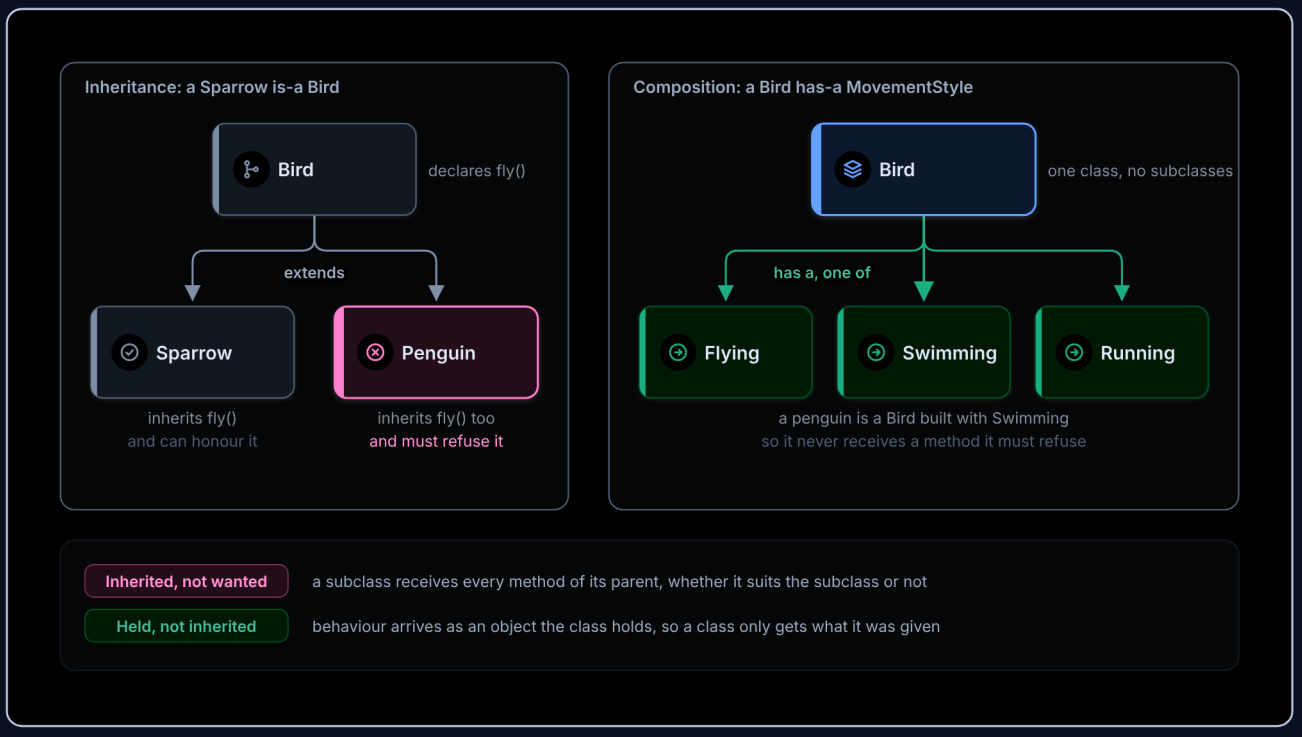
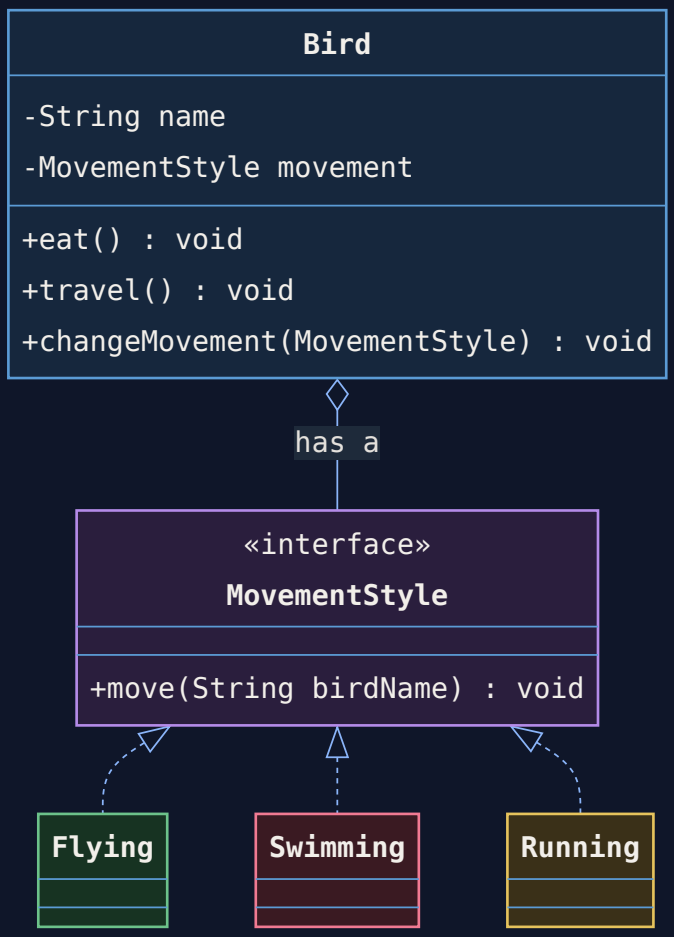


Figure — inheritance (Penguin inherits fly() and refuses it) vs composition (a Bird has a MovementStyle) (course diagram)



	Inheritance	Composition
Kind of link	Penguin **is a** Bird	Bird **has a** MovementStyle
In code	`class Penguin extends Bird`	`Bird` holds a `MovementStyle` field
What it gets	all of the parent's methods	just the object handed to it
To change behaviour	add another subclass	supply another object
Change while running?	no, fixed at creation	yes, replace the field
LSP risk	high: inherited methods may not suit	low: nothing is inherited

When to use which: inheritance when the child genuinely is a kind of the parent *and* keeps every inherited promise; **composition** when what differs is a behaviour, or the moment a subclass rejects something it inherited — an override that throws, silently does nothing, or carries a "never call this on X" comment should become a separate object.

Tell, Don't Ask

The composition design follows a guideline popularised by Andy Hunt and Dave Thomas (*The Pragmatic Programmer*): **tell an object what to do; do not ask about its state and decide for it.**

```
// Asking: the caller inspects the object and makes the decision.
if (bird instanceof Penguin) { swim(bird); } else { fly(bird); }

// Telling: the caller states the goal, the object decides how.
bird.travel();
```

Asking code must know every subtype, breaking OCP and hiding LSP problems behind `instanceof`; telling code works with any substitute. A caller needing `instanceof` on a base type strongly hints the base type promises the wrong thing.

The rules a subclass must follow

Exceptions are easy to spot; the harmful violations **quietly produce a wrong result and keep running**.

`Square extends Rectangle`. Every square is a rectangle in geometry; to stay square, `Square` couples its sides (setting width sets height). Nothing throws, yet a method for `Rectangle` setting width 5 and height 4 expects area 20 and gets 16 — in production, a wrong bill or inventory figure nobody notices for weeks. `Rectangle` implied, never stated, that **width and height change independently**; its two setters invited callers to rely on it. A square is a rectangle mathematically but **not a valid subtype of this `Rectangle` class**. **Base inheritance on the promises written in the code, not on real-world classification.**

A subclass may do the job *differently*, but may not **require more** from callers, **give them less**, or **break an assumption they depend on**. The vocabulary is Bertrand Meyer's **Design by Contract**: **preconditions** (what the caller must provide), **postconditions** (what the method guarantees afterwards), **invariants** (what is always true of the object).

Rule 1 — Preconditions may not be strengthened. An override may accept *wider* input, never narrower. `Discount` accepts any amount ≥ 0; `SmallOrderDiscount` refuses ≥ 100, so a caller passing 250 (allowed by the parent) fails — and would have to discover which discount it got, the very check substitution should make unnecessary.

Rule 2 — Postconditions may not be weakened. An override may guarantee *more*, never less. `Account.withdraw` guarantees balance ≥ 0; `OverdraftAccount` lets it go negative — a fine banking feature, but a broken guarantee: callers relying on "balance ≥ 0" are silently wrong (a payment job keeps paying suppliers from an overdrawn account). An overdraft account can be a good class, just not a subtype of one promising a non-negative balance.

Rule 3 — Invariants must be preserved. An invariant holds throughout the object's life; `Square` broke "width and height are independent". (Equally a weakened postcondition — `Rectangle.setWidth` implicitly guarantees "height unchanged" and `Square.setWidth` drops it; Martin describes it that way; same conclusion.) Hardest rule, since invariants are rarely written down: a subclass inherits every promise, documented or not.

Rule 4 — No new exceptions callers cannot handle. Only the parent's declared exceptions (or subtypes); a new type reaches callers with no `catch`. `ElectricCar.refuel()` broke it — and compiled, because Java enforces this only for **checked** exceptions and `UnsupportedOperationException` is unchecked. Most visible, least harmful: the failure is immediate and loud.

Rule 5 — The history constraint (Liskov and Wing): **a subtype must not allow state changes the parent does not allow.** `Price` promises its value never changes; `AdjustablePrice` adds `adjust()` — each call looks innocent, but a caller who captured a quote of 100 is charged 120 on "the same" price. That is why immutable classes like `String` and `Integer` are `final`: a mutable subclass could break the immutability callers rely on.

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/lsp/rules/ (essentials)
public class Discount {          // precondition: amount >= 0; postcondition: 90% of amount
    public BigDecimal apply(BigDecimal amount) {
        if (amount.signum() < 0) throw new IllegalArgumentException("amount must be >= 0");
        return amount.multiply(new BigDecimal("0.90")).setScale(2, RoundingMode.HALF_EVEN);
    }
}
public class SmallOrderDiscount extends Discount {   // RULE 1 BROKEN: demands MORE
    @Override public BigDecimal apply(BigDecimal amount) {
        if (amount.compareTo(new BigDecimal("100")) >= 0) throw new IllegalArgumentException("only for orders
under 100");
        return super.apply(amount);
    }
}
public class Account {           // postcondition: balance never negative
    protected BigDecimal balance;
    public BigDecimal withdraw(BigDecimal amount) {
        if (amount.compareTo(balance) <= 0) balance = balance.subtract(amount);
        return balance;
    }
}
public class OverdraftAccount extends Account {      // RULE 2 BROKEN: promises LESS; nothing throws
    @Override public BigDecimal withdraw(BigDecimal amount) { balance = balance.subtract(amount); return balance;
}
}
public class Rectangle {         // unwritten invariant: width and height set independently
    protected int width, height;
    public void setWidth(int width)   { this.width = width; }
    public void setHeight(int height) { this.height = height; }
    public int area() { return width * height; }
}
public class Square extends Rectangle {              // RULE 3 BROKEN: couples the setters, silent wrong answer
    @Override public void setWidth(int width)   { this.width = width;  this.height = width; }
    @Override public void setHeight(int height) { this.width = height; this.height = height; }
}
public class Price {             // history contract: never changes after creation (private final value)
    public BigDecimal value() { return value; }
}
public class AdjustablePrice extends Price {         // HISTORY CONSTRAINT BROKEN: adds a mutator
    private BigDecimal current;
    @Override public BigDecimal value() { return current; }
    public void adjust(BigDecimal newValue) { this.current = newValue; }
}
```

Why it matters so much: code written against a base type cannot protect itself — it cannot see, and should not need to see, which subclass it got. Only the subclass author can keep the contract.

The fix for Rectangle/Square: share no mutable promise one cannot keep. Make both **immutable** behind a common interface promising only what both can do (`area()`); "resizing" returns a new object, so no setter can break an invariant. Java 21 `record` s and a `sealed` interface:

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/lsp/shapes/
public sealed interface Shape permits Rect, Sq { int area(); }
public record Rect(int width, int height) implements Shape {
    public Rect withWidth(int w) { return new Rect(w, height); }   // "resizing" = a new object
    @Override public int area() { return width * height; }
}
public record Sq(int side) implements Shape { @Override public int area() { return side * side; } }
```

The driver runs every example through client methods that know **only the base type**:

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/lsp/Main.java (client methods; main calls each with parent and child, under === headers)
static void service(lld.ch04.lsp.car.before.Car car) { car.start(); car.refuel(); car.stop(); }
static void takeATrip(Vehicle v) { v.start(); v.replenishEnergy(); v.stop(); }
static void checkout(Discount d, BigDecimal amount) {            // called with 250.00
    try { System.out.println("  Charged: " + d.apply(amount)); }
    catch (IllegalArgumentException e) { System.out.println("  Broke on a valid amount: " + e.getMessage()); }
}
static void paySupplier(Account account, BigDecimal amount, String label) {   // balance 50.00, pay 80.00
    BigDecimal balance = account.withdraw(amount);
    System.out.println("  " + label + " balance after payment: " + balance
            + (balance.signum() < 0 ? "   <-- the caller never expected this" : ""));
}
/** A contract test written against Rectangle -- run it for every subclass. */
static void resizeAndCheck(Rectangle r, String label) {
    r.setWidth(5);
    r.setHeight(4);
    System.out.println("  " + label + " expected area 20, got " + r.area());
}
static void quoteThenCharge(Price p, Runnable somethingElseHappens) {   // sneaky.adjust(120.00) for
AdjustablePrice
    BigDecimal quoted = p.value();
    somethingElseHappens.run();
    System.out.println("  quoted " + quoted + ", charged " + p.value());
}
// 7: prints each of new Rect(5, 4), new Sq(4), new Rect(2, 3).withWidth(5) with "area="
// 8: old Sparrow/Penguin fly() (catching the refusal); then Birds Sparrow(Flying), Penguin(Swimming),
//    Ostrich(Running) travel(); then sparrow.changeMovement(new Running()); sparrow.travel();
```

Output:

```
=== 1. Car / ElectricCar (exception rule) ===
Car is starting
Car is refueling
Car is stopping
Car is starting
  substitution broke: Electric cars don't need refueling
=== 2. Fixed hierarchy: Vehicle -> Car | ElectricCar ===
Car is starting
Car is pumping gasoline
Car is stopping
ElectricCar is starting
Electric car is charging its battery
ElectricCar is stopping
=== 3. Precondition strengthened ===
  Charged: 225.00
  Broke on a valid amount: only for orders under 100
=== 4. Postcondition weakened ===
  Account:          balance after payment: 50.00
  OverdraftAccount: balance after payment: -30.00   <-- the caller never expected this
=== 5. Invariant broken (Rectangle / Square) ===
  Rectangle: expected area 20, got 20
  Square:    expected area 20, got 16
=== 6. History constraint broken ===
  quoted 100.00, charged 100.00
  quoted 100.00, charged 120.00
=== 7. Fix for shapes: no shared mutable promise ===
  Rect[width=5, height=4] area=20
  Sq[side=4] area=16
  Rect[width=5, height=3] area=15
=== 8. Birds: inheritance vs composition ===
Sparrow is flying
  Substitution broke: Penguins can't fly
Sparrow is flying through the air
Penguin is swimming through the water
Ostrich is running along the ground
Sparrow is running along the ground
```

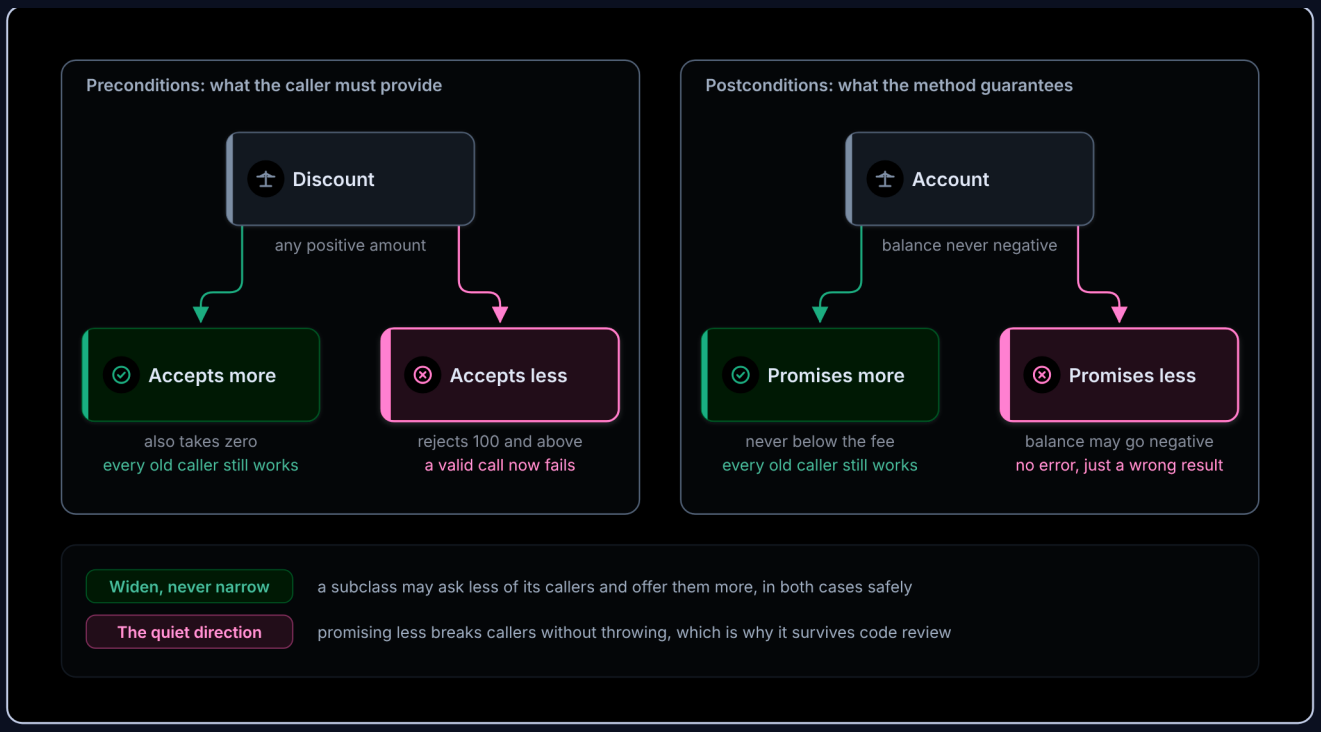


Figure — preconditions and postconditions: accepting more or promising more is safe; accepting less or promising less breaks callers (course diagram)

Widen, never narrow: a subclass may ask less of callers and offer them more. (The figure's parent `Discount` accepts positive amounts and the safe subclass also zero; here the parent already accepts zero — same direction. Its "promises more" account keeps the balance above a fee, stronger than "never negative".)

Rule	The subclass may not…	How it usually shows up
Preconditions	demand more from the caller	valid input is rejected
Postconditions	guarantee less to the caller	a returned value breaks a caller's assumption
Invariants	break a rule that always held	a silently wrong result (the square)
Exceptions	throw something new	a crash in code with no matching `catch`
History	allow state changes the parent forbids	a "fixed" value changes between two reads

Signature rules (compiler-checked). Behavioural subtyping also has type rules: parameters may be *wider* (contravariant), return types *narrower* (covariant), exceptions only *narrower*. Java enforces a version: an override may return a **subtype** (covariant returns); may **not** declare new or broader **checked** exceptions; may **not** reduce visibility; parameter types must match exactly (otherwise it is an **overload** — `@Override` catches this). Java checks none of the **behavioural** rules: unchecked exceptions, weakened postconditions and broken invariants all compile. That part is on you.

How to check a subclass

1. **List the parent's promises first** — promises, not signatures ("the balance never drops below zero", "width and height change independently"); most violations slip in because the promise was never stated.
2. **Write one test against the parent type and run it for every subclass.** `resizeAndCheck(Rectangle)` never mentions `Square`, yet `Square` fails it; any subclass failing a base-type test violates LSP, however reasonable its code looks. (In JUnit, Java's standard testing library, an *abstract contract test* each subclass's test class extends.)

Why LSP matters: prevents fragile code (no surprised callers); keeps polymorphism usable (new subclasses without `instanceof` — what makes OCP work); correctness (right results, not just no crash); safe reuse of base types.

Trade-offs

Following LSP gains	Costs
Callers trust the base type; no type checks	You must think about and document contracts
New subclasses are safe to add	Some "natural" hierarchies (Square/Rectangle) must be abandoned
Composition gives run-time flexibility	More small objects; behaviour is spread out

When not: LSP is not optional where you use polymorphism — what you can skip is inheritance: a subclass that cannot keep the parent's promises should **not be a subclass**.

Common mistakes

- Modelling the real world ("a square is a rectangle", "a penguin is a bird") instead of the code's promises.
- "Fixing" a violation by making the method silently do nothing — a loud failure becomes a quiet wrong result.
- Thinking LSP is only about exceptions; the silent rules (postconditions, invariants, history) are more dangerous.
- Believing siblings must substitute for each other; substitution is only child → parent.

Refactorings: smell **Refused Bequest**; fixes **Replace Subclass with Delegate**, **Replace Superclass with Delegate** (composition), **Extract Superclass** (raise a general parent), **Push Down Method** (move a method only some subclasses support out of the parent).

Real-world examples

- **`java.sql.Date extends java.util.Date`**: time methods like `getHours()` throw `IllegalArgumentException` (an SQL date has no time), breaking code written for `java.util.Date`.
- **`java.sql.Timestamp`**: its Javadoc (official docs generated from code comments) warns its `equals` is not symmetric with `java.util.Date.equals` and calls the inheritance implementation, not type, inheritance — a textbook LSP warning in the JDK.
- **`java.util.Stack extends Vector`**: inherits `insertElementAt` and `get(int)`, letting callers break stack order; the Javadoc now recommends `Deque` (a double-ended queue adding/removing only at its ends).
- **`List.of(...)` / `Collections.unmodifiableList(...)`** throw `UnsupportedOperationException` from `add`. `List` marks `add` an *optional operation*, so it is in the contract — but a known compromise: a caller holding a `List` cannot know whether `add` works.

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "LSP says a subclass must work anywhere its parent is expected, giving correct results, not just no crash. Concretely: it cannot demand more input, promise less output, break an invariant, throw new exceptions, or allow state changes the parent forbids. Square extending a mutable Rectangle is the classic silent break: set width 5 and height 4 and you get 16. I test it by writing one test against the base type and running it for every subclass. When a subclass must refuse a method, I either raise a better parent or move the behaviour into a composed object."

- *"An LSP violation you've seen?"* — Rectangle/Square, or `java.sql.Date` throwing from `getHours()`; then the rule: demand no more, promise no less, keep the invariants.
- *"Composition over inheritance, always?"* — No; inheritance is fine when the child honours every parent method. A subclass refusing an inherited method is the signal to switch.
- *"Is `ElectricCar` a substitute for `Car` after your fix?"* — No, nor should it be: both substitute for `Vehicle`; siblings do not substitute.

Self-check

1. **Q:** A subclass accepts **fewer** inputs. Which rule? **A:** Preconditions strengthened (rule 1).

2. **Q:** Why is Square/Rectangle more dangerous than `ElectricCar.refuel()` throwing? **A:** A silent wrong answer; the exception fails loudly and is found at once.
3. **Q:** The history constraint? **A:** A subtype must not allow state changes the parent does not, e.g. a mutable subclass of an immutable class.
4. **Q:** What does `@Override` protect you from? **A:** Accidentally overloading (different parameter type) instead of overriding.
5. **Q:** "Tell, Don't Ask"? **A:** Tell an object to do the job (`bird.travel()`) instead of inspecting its type/state and deciding for it.

TL;DR

A subclass keeps every parent promise: accepts at least as much, delivers at least as much, keeps invariants and history, throws nothing new. Inheritance follows promises, not real-world categories. When a subclass must refuse something, raise a better parent or compose.

4.9 Interface Segregation Principle (ISP)

What it is

Clients should not be forced to depend on methods they do not use. Instead of one large general interface, offer smaller ones shaped around what each kind of caller needs.

Origin. Martin met the problem consulting for Xerox: one big `Job` class served every printer-system task (printing, stapling...), so a change for one task forced every other task's code to be rebuilt. Splitting its services into one interface per kind of client fixed it.

> **Analogy:** handing every restaurant guest the 40-page menu (wine list, kids' menu, catering prices) when someone wants only coffee — a coffee card is enough.

A **fat interface** has many methods, usually grown one feature at a time; a **role interface** is a small interface for the role an object plays for one kind of caller.

The problem it solves

- Implementers must write methods they cannot honour, so they throw or do nothing (also breaking LSP).
- Callers depend on methods they never call, so changes to those still reach them (recompile, redeploy, retest).
- Test doubles get long: a fake must implement every method.

Example: a bloated `Printer` interface

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/isp/fat/Printer.java — FAT: everything any printer might do
public interface Printer {
    void printDocument(String doc);
    void scanDocument(String doc);
    void faxDocument(String doc);
    void stapleDocument(String doc);
}
// File: code/lld/ch04/isp/fat/BasicPrinter.java — VIOLATION: forced to "implement" three methods it can only refuse
@Override public void printDocument(String doc) { System.out.println("BasicPrinter printing " + doc); }
@Override public void scanDocument(String doc)  { throw new UnsupportedOperationException("BasicPrinter cannot scan"); }
// faxDocument and stapleDocument throw likewise ("cannot fax", "cannot staple").
// AdvancedPrinter really does all four ("AdvancedPrinter printing/scanning/faxing/stapling " + doc): the wide interface is honest for it.
```

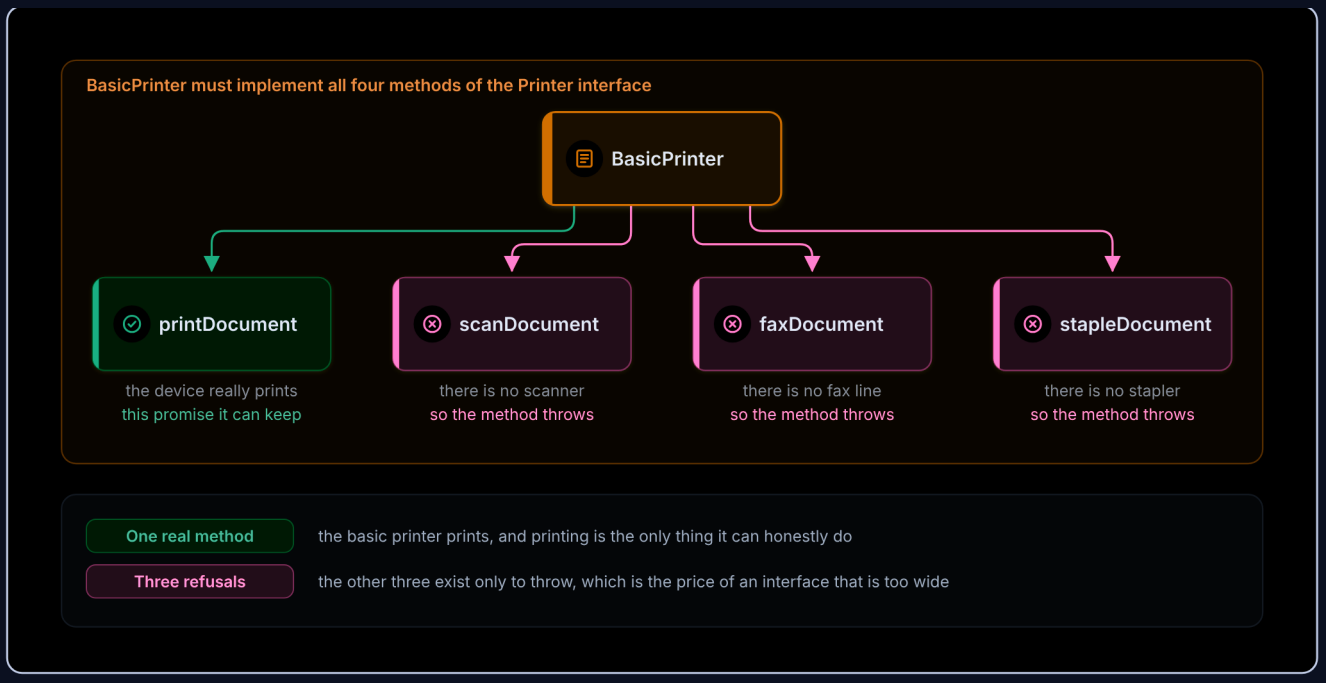


Figure — BasicPrinter keeps one real method and three that exist only to throw (course diagram)

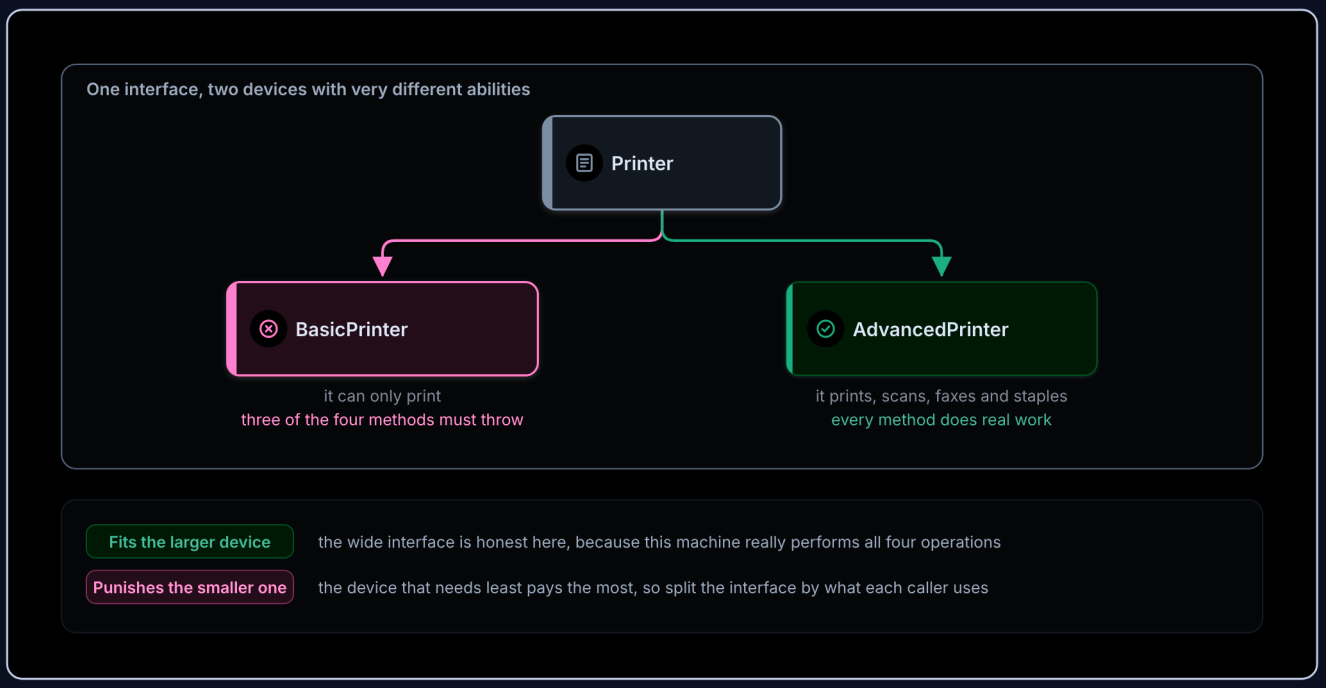


Figure — one interface, two devices: it fits the larger device and punishes the smaller one (course diagram)

ISP in one picture: the simplest device carries the heaviest burden. Split the interface by what each caller uses.

Restructuring: first attempt, one interface per capability

Split into `Printer`, `Scanner`, `Fax`, `Stapler` (one method each); `BasicPrinter implements Printer`; `AdvancedPrinter implements Printer, Scanner, Fax, Stapler`. Nobody implements what it cannot do. This satisfies ISP and shows the mechanics — but **one interface per method is not the goal**: if every scanner also faxes and every caller uses both, separate interfaces add names and remove no dependency.

How small should an interface be?

Group by caller, not by method: an interface carries the methods one kind of caller needs. Right-sized when both answers are "no":

1. **Is any implementer forced to supply a method it cannot honour?** Yes → too wide.
2. **Does any caller depend on methods it never calls?** Yes → too wide for that caller.

One method or six — the count was never the measure.

What over-splitting costs. A caller that scans, prints and staples needs three parameters, and its creator hands over **one device three times**:

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/isp/split/OfficeWorkflow.java — OVER-SPLIT: three dependencies, nothing gained
public OfficeWorkflow(Printer printer, Scanner scanner, Stapler stapler) { ... }
public void run(String doc) {
    scanner.scanDocument(doc);
    printer.printDocument(doc);
    stapler.stapleDocument(doc);
}
```

Technically ISP-compliant, but `OfficeWorkflow` calls all three, so the split removed no dependency — it added two type names and two parameters.

Grouping by role. `OfficeWorkflow` wants one device that scans, prints and staples: one role, `DocumentProcessor`. `PrintQueue` only prints: role `Printer`. Two interfaces are justified because a `BasicPrinter` can play the second role but not the first; `DocumentProcessor extends Printer`, so any processor also fits a print queue.

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/isp/roles/
public interface Printer { void printDocument(String doc); }                // callers that only print
public interface DocumentProcessor extends Printer {                        // callers that scan, print AND
staple
    void scanDocument(String doc);
    void stapleDocument(String doc);
}
// BasicPrinter implements Printer ("Basic printer printing " + doc);
// OfficeDevice implements DocumentProcessor ("Printing " / "Scanning " / "Stapling " + doc)
public class PrintQueue {                        // depends on printing only, so a basic printer is enough
    private final Printer printer;
    public void submit(String doc) { printer.printDocument(doc); }
}
public class OfficeWorkflow {                    // one dependency: one role covers everything it needs
    private final DocumentProcessor processor;
    public void run(String doc) {
        processor.scanDocument(doc);
        processor.printDocument(doc);
        processor.stapleDocument(doc);
    }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/isp/Main.java (abridged)
// 1: for fat AdvancedPrinter and BasicPrinter: printDocument("report.pdf"), then scanDocument (catching
//    the refusal as "  forced to implement: ...")
// 2: split BasicPrinter prints memo.pdf; AdvancedPrinter adv faxes memo.pdf; then
new lld.ch04.isp.split.OfficeWorkflow(adv, adv, adv).run("contract.pdf");   // same object three times
// 3: role interfaces
new PrintQueue(new BasicPrinter()).submit("receipt.pdf");
new PrintQueue(new OfficeDevice()).submit("receipt.pdf"); // bigger device fits the small role
new OfficeWorkflow(new OfficeDevice()).run("contract.pdf");
```

Output:

```
=== 1. Fat interface ===
AdvancedPrinter printing report.pdf
AdvancedPrinter scanning report.pdf
BasicPrinter printing report.pdf
  forced to implement: BasicPrinter cannot scan
=== 2. One interface per method ===
BasicPrinter printing memo.pdf
AdvancedPrinter faxing memo.pdf
AdvancedPrinter scanning contract.pdf
AdvancedPrinter printing contract.pdf
AdvancedPrinter stapling contract.pdf
=== 3. Role interfaces (grouped by caller) ===
Basic printer printing receipt.pdf
Printing receipt.pdf
Scanning contract.pdf
Printing contract.pdf
Stapling contract.pdf
```

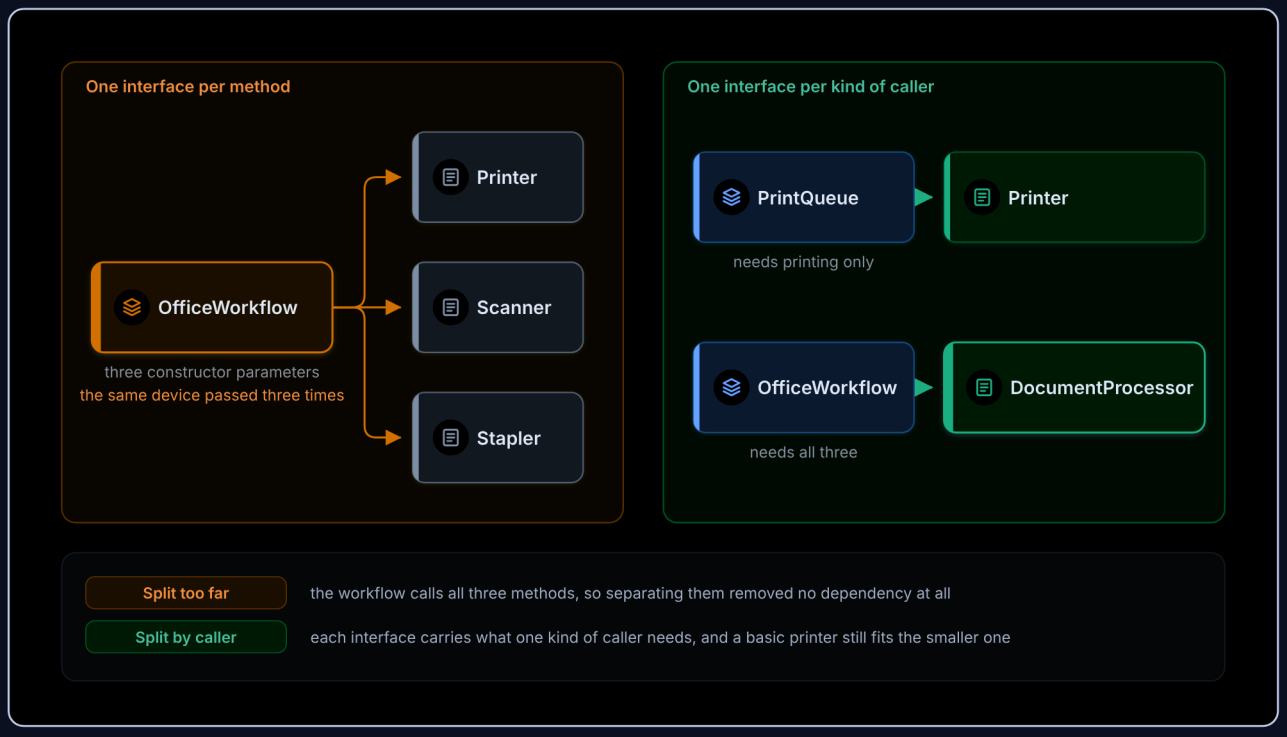
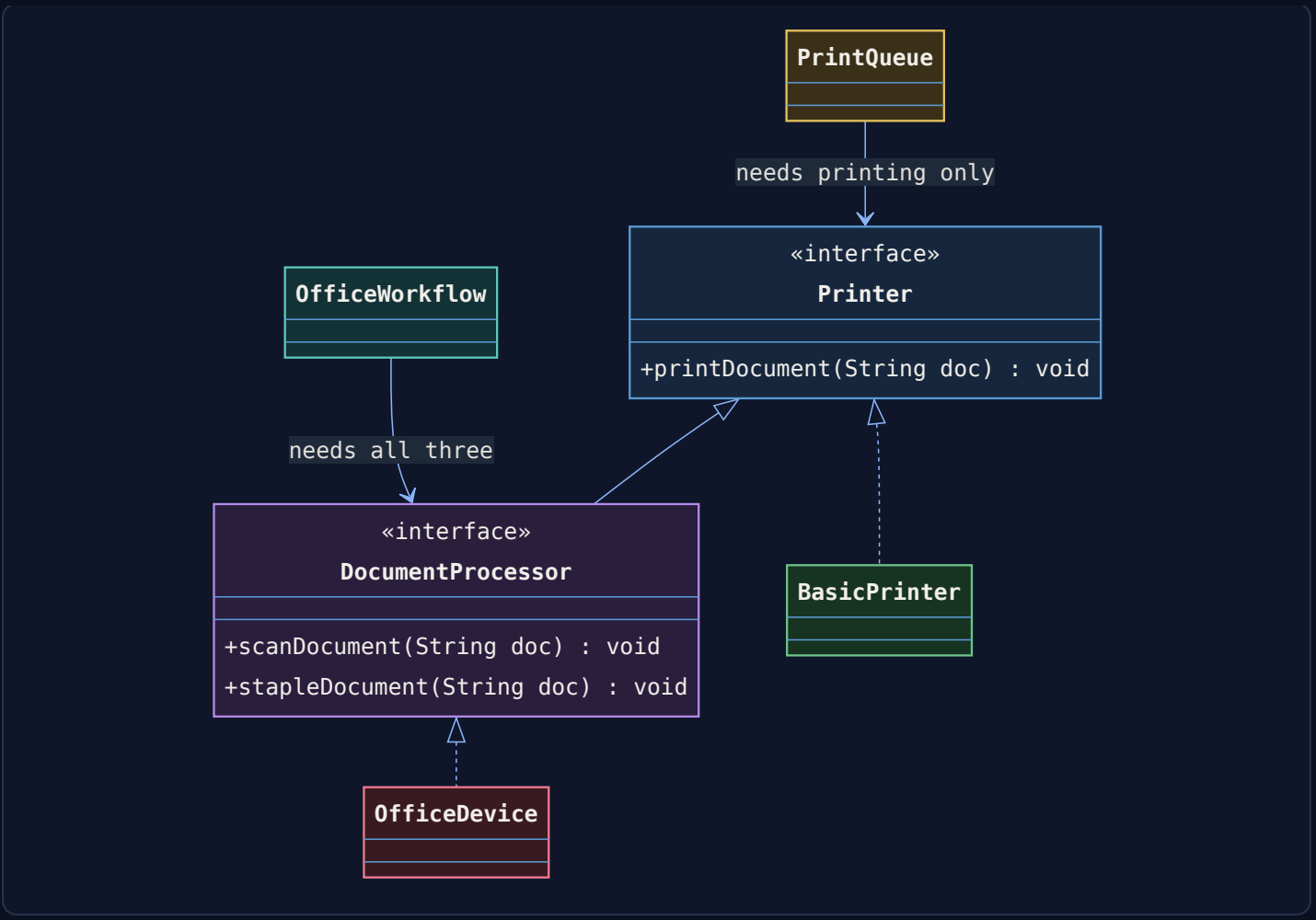


Figure — split too far (three interfaces, the same device passed three times) vs split by caller (one role per kind of caller) (course diagram)



	Four interfaces, one method each	Two role interfaces
Implementer forced to supply what it cannot do?	No	No
Caller depending on unused methods?	No	No
Dependencies for `OfficeWorkflow`	3	1
Names to learn	4	2

Both satisfy ISP; the role-based one is leaner because its interfaces follow callers, not methods.

Rule of thumb: split only when you can **point to the caller** that needs the smaller piece (otherwise it is speculation); conversely, two interfaces always implemented by the same classes and consumed by the same callers should probably merge.

Languages without an `interface` keyword (Python, JavaScript): the interface is invisible but real — **the set of methods a caller actually calls**. Handing a 20-method object to a function that calls one creates the same needless dependency, unflagged by any compiler. Tests hide it further: Java forces a long stub (a fake with every method filled in) for a wide interface, whereas Python lets you pass a one-method object — convenient, but masking the problem. So check deliberately what a function calls on its argument. Python's `abc` module and `typing.Protocol` (its two ways to declare an interface) can write the role down; for a one-place role a comment listing needed methods often suffices.

Five signals of an ISP violation

1. Low cohesion in the interface — unrelated method groups.

```
interface MediaDevice { void playAudio(); void playVideo(); void recordVideo(); }
// A Speaker can only playAudio(); playVideo() and recordVideo() must throw.
```

2. A fat interface — a long list grown feature by feature; mechanism-named methods are a tell that some implementer won't use them.

```
interface PaymentProcessor { void processCreditCard(BigDecimal a); void processPayPal(BigDecimal a); void processBankTransfer(BigDecimal a); }
// A shop that only takes PayPal must still supply the other two.
// Better: interface PaymentMethod { void pay(BigDecimal amount); } with one class per method.
```

3. Empty or throwing methods — the clearest signal: the interface asks for what the class cannot provide.

```
interface Vehicle { void drive(); void fly(); void sail(); }
// A Car drives; fly() and sail() throw UnsupportedOperationException.
```

4. One interface serving several kinds of client — it describes a category ("everything an employee can do"), so every role implements the union of all roles.

```
interface Employee { void calculateSalary(); void handleCustomerQueries(); void manageTeam(); }
// A support agent handles queries; the other two methods must throw.
```

5. Tests needing long stand-ins — a fake must implement every method even if one is exercised; dozens of empty bodies for one call mean the interface is too wide **for that caller**. It measures the distance between what a caller uses and what it must depend on.

Signal	When it shows up	Typical cause
Low cohesion	Reading the interface	Groups of unrelated methods should be split into their own interfaces
Fat interface	Reading the interface	It grew feature by feature and was never split
Empty / throwing methods	Reading an implementer	The implementer was forced to accept what it cannot do
One interface, many roles	Comparing implementers	It describes a category, not a caller's needs
Long test stand-ins	Writing a test	Callers are tied to much more than they actually call

How it works (step by step)

1. For each caller, list the methods it actually calls. 2. Group callers with the same list: each group is a **role**. 3. One interface per role (interfaces may extend each other, like `DocumentProcessor extends Printer`). 4. Each class implements every role it can honestly fill. 5. Change each caller's parameter type to the narrowest role it needs.

Why it matters: no bloated classes forced to implement unneeded methods; maintainability (a change to one role does not ripple to another's callers); flexibility (small roles are easy to implement anew); simpler tests (fakes implement one or two methods); clearer design (each interface documents one relationship).

Relation to the others: SRP — ISP is SRP for interfaces; **OCP** — new capabilities arrive as new small interfaces, not edits to a big one; **LSP** — small-interface implementers can honour every method, while a fat interface **forces** LSP violations (the throwing `BasicPrinter`); **DIP** — high-level code depends on the smallest abstraction it needs.

Trade-offs

Small role interfaces gain	Costs
No forced, throwing methods	More interface names
Callers insulated from unrelated changes	Over-splitting adds wiring with no benefit
Tiny test doubles; lambdas for one-method roles	Harder to see "everything this device can do" in one place

When not: every implementer supports every method and every caller uses them all (already right-sized); you cannot name the caller wanting the smaller piece.

Common mistakes

- **One interface per method everywhere** — the commonest mistake after learning ISP. A fat interface at least shows its cost; hundreds of tiny ones cost slowly, in names and wiring, and are harder to undo.
- Splitting by the implementer's features instead of the caller's needs.
- Keeping the fat interface and adding an "adapter" base class with empty methods (like AWT's `MouseAdapter`; AWT is Java's original desktop UI toolkit): convenient, but a symptom.

Real-world examples

- **Java's tiny role interfaces**: `Runnable`, `Comparable`, `AutoCloseable`, `Iterable`, `CharSequence`, all of `java.util.function`; `try-with-resources` needs only `AutoCloseable`, not "a file".
- **AWT** `MouseListener` has five methods though most listeners need one, hence `MouseAdapter`'s empty bodies; later APIs (JavaFX event handlers) use one-method handlers.
- **Collections**: `List.of(...)` and unmodifiable views throw on `add` because `Collection` bundles reading and writing; Kotlin (another JVM language) separates `List` (read) and `MutableList` (write).
- **Spring Data** (generates repository code): `CrudRepository`, `PagingAndSortingRepository` and the bare `Repository` marker expose only the operations needed.

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "ISP says no caller should depend on methods it does not use. The symptom is a class implementing an interface method by throwing, or a test fake full of empty methods. I split interfaces by caller: one role interface per kind of caller, not one per method. For printers, a print queue needs `Printer`, an office workflow needs `DocumentProcessor`. I split only when I can name the caller that wants the smaller piece."

- *"SRP vs ISP?"* — SRP protects the **class** (one reason to change); ISP protects the **caller** (no unused dependencies). SRP splits classes, ISP interfaces; either can break without the other.
- *"How small is too small?"* — When a caller takes several interfaces that are always the same object: always implemented and used together means one interface.

Self-check

1. **Q:** The two right-size questions? **A:** Is any implementer forced to supply what it cannot do? Does any caller depend on methods it never calls?
2. **Q:** Three ISP signals? **A:** Throwing/empty methods, a fat interface with mechanism-named methods, long test stand-ins (also: low cohesion, one interface for several roles).
3. **Q:** Why didn't four interfaces help `OfficeWorkflow`? **A:** It uses all three methods, so no dependency was removed; only names and parameters were added.

TL;DR

One interface per kind of caller. Throwing methods and long fakes mean too wide; the same object passed three times means too thin.

4.10 Dependency Inversion Principle (DIP)

What it is

Martin's two statements, paraphrased:

1. **High-level modules should not depend on low-level modules. Both should depend on abstractions.**
2. **Abstractions should not depend on details. Details should depend on abstractions.**

A **high-level module** holds business policy — *what* the application does ("notify the user when an order ships"); a **low-level module** a technical detail — *how* (SMTP email, SMTP being the mail-sending protocol; an SMS gateway; MySQL); the **abstraction** is the interface between.

Why "inversion"? In traditional layering, high-level code calls low-level code **and** its source depends on it (`import com.mail.SmtpClient`). DIP keeps the call direction (policy still calls the detail at run time) but **reverses the source-code dependency**: the detail imports and implements an interface belonging to the policy.

> **Analogy: a wall socket.** A lamp plugs into a standard socket, not the power station; the building wiring (the detail) is also built to the standard; either side is replaceable.

The problem it solves

Business logic tied to one vendor or technology (email → SMS edits business code); untestable without the real infrastructure (servers and services the program runs on: mail server, database); low-level library changes rippling up into policy.

Example: notifications

Before. High-level `NotificationService` creates and names low-level `EmailService`:

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/dip/before/ — EmailService.sendEmail prints "Sending email: " + message
/** VIOLATION: high-level policy creates and names a low-level detail. */
public class NotificationService {
    private final EmailService emailService = new EmailService();
    public void notifyUser(String message) { emailService.sendEmail(message); }
}
```

Tightly coupled: SMS or push means editing `NotificationService` .

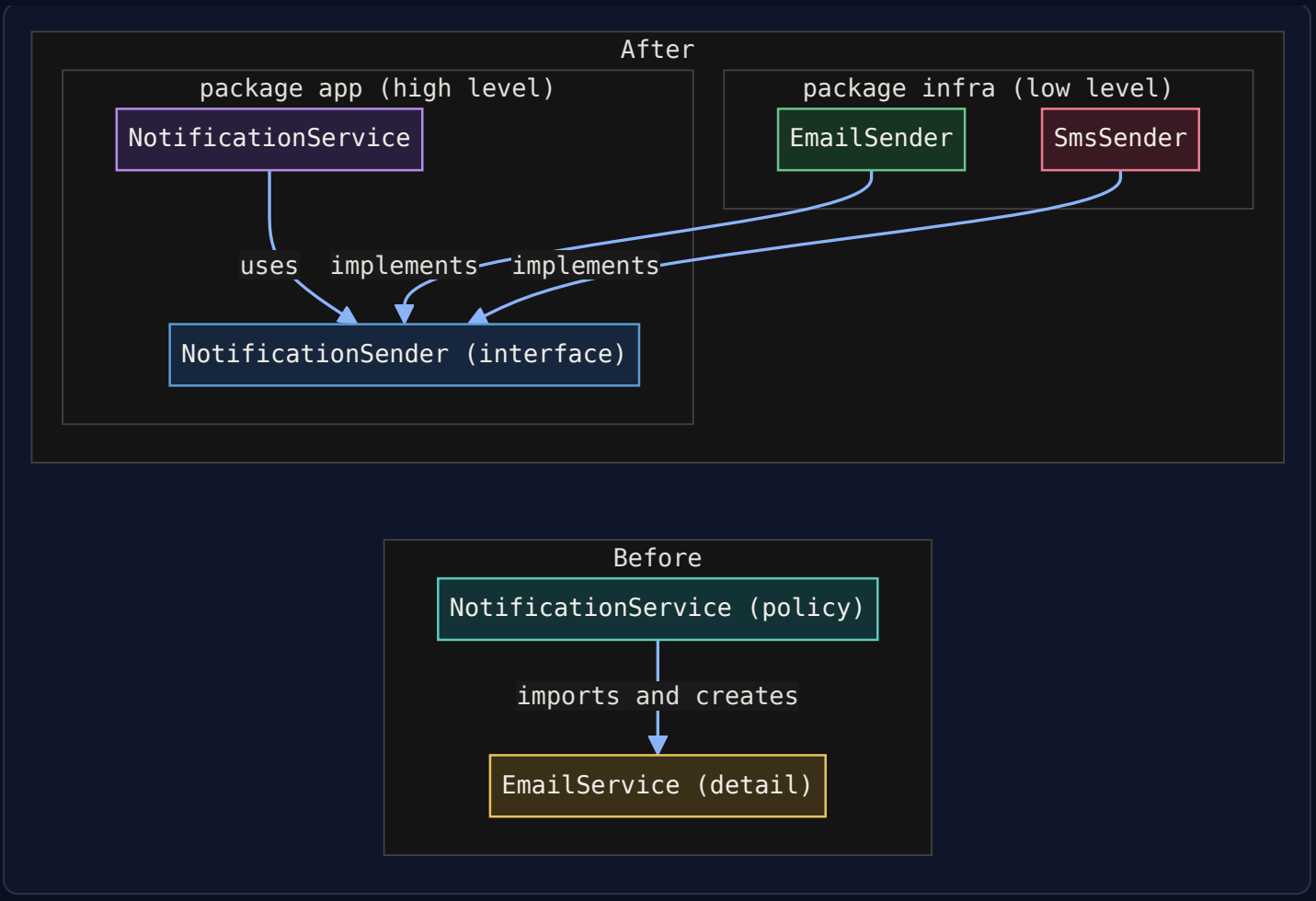
After, in four steps: (1) **introduce an abstraction**, `NotificationSender` ; (2) **low-level modules implement it** (`EmailSender` , `SmsSender`) — details depend on the abstraction; (3) **the high-level module depends only on it**, via its constructor; (4) **test** with different senders, including a recording fake.

Note the packages: the interface lives in `app` , **next to the policy using it**, not in `infra` with the implementations. The most-missed part of DIP: **the high-level side owns the abstraction**, shaped by what the policy needs, not by what email offers. `app` imports nothing from `infra` ; `infra` imports `app` .

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/dip/app/NotificationSender.java — the abstraction lives with the policy (app)
public interface NotificationSender { void send(String recipient, String message); }

// File: code/lld/ch04/dip/app/NotificationService.java — imports nothing from infra
public class NotificationService {
    private final NotificationSender sender;
    public NotificationService(NotificationSender sender) { this.sender = Objects.requireNonNull(sender); } //
constructor injection
    public void notifyUser(String userId, String message) {
        if (message.isBlank()) throw new IllegalArgumentException("empty notification");
        sender.send(userId, message);
    }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/dip/infra/EmailSender.java — the detail depends on the abstraction (arrow points UP into
app)
public class EmailSender implements NotificationSender {
    @Override public void send(String recipient, String message) { System.out.println("[email -> " + recipient +
"] " + message); }
}
// SmsSender prints "[sms -> recipient] message"; RecordingSender (a test double: no mail server needed)
// stores recipient + ":" + message in a list returned by sent()
```



In "After", every inter-package arrow points **from the detail into the policy** — the inversion.

DIP in practice: four real-world techniques

1. Dependency Injection (DI) — give a class its dependencies from outside instead of letting it create them:

Kind	How	Use when
Constructor injection	Pass dependencies to the constructor	Default choice: required dependencies, immutable fields, obvious in the signature
Setter injection	Call `setX(...)` after construction	Optional dependencies with a sensible default
Method (parameter) injection	Pass the dependency to the one method that needs it	It varies per call (e.g. if the format changed on every call, `invoice.generate(generator)` instead of the constructor injection used in 4.7)

Typical web case: a `DataService` receives a `DataRepository` interface in its constructor instead of building a MySQL repository, so another database means passing a different implementation, no edit. The class doing all the `new`-ing is the **composition root** — here each `Main`, the one place knowing the concrete classes.

2. Service Locator — a central registry hands out services by name or type; the high-level class depends on a `Locator` abstraction and asks it at run time.

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/dip/locator/ — PaymentService { void processPayment(BigDecimal amount); }
// PayPalService prints "Processing payment via PayPal: $" + amount
public interface Locator { PaymentService paymentService(String name); }   // high level depends on this
public class ServiceLocator implements Locator {                           // central registry
    private final Map<String, PaymentService> services = new ConcurrentHashMap<>();
    public void register(String name, PaymentService service) { services.put(name, service); }
    @Override public PaymentService paymentService(String name) {
        PaymentService s = services.get(name);
        if (s == null) throw new NoSuchElementException("No payment service named " + name);
        return s;
    }
}
public class CheckoutFlow {          // asks at run time: its real dependency (PaymentService) is hidden inside
    private final Locator locator;
    public void pay(String serviceName, BigDecimal amount) {
locator.paymentService(serviceName).processPayment(amount); }
}
```

This follows DIP: `CheckoutFlow` names no concrete payment class and gets the `Locator` *interface* via its constructor, so even the registry is replaceable (e.g. a test locator). But note the criticism (Martin Fowler compares the approaches; Mark Seemann calls Service Locator an anti-pattern — a common solution causing more problems than it solves): **real** dependencies hide inside method bodies, invisible from the constructor, and a missing registration fails only at run time. Prefer constructor injection; use a locator mainly at framework boundaries.

3. Inversion of Control (IoC) containers — frameworks like **Spring** (Java) and **.NET**'s built-in container (Microsoft's platform) create objects and inject dependencies. In Spring a single-constructor class is injected automatically (`@Autowired` , an annotation marking where Spring injects, is optional for a single constructor since Spring 4.3; a **bean** is a Spring-managed object; the **classpath** is where Java looks for classes and libraries):

```java
// Spring version -- NOT part of this chapter's compiled code (needs Spring on the classpath).
@Service
public class OrderService {
    private final PaymentService payments;          // an interface
    public OrderService(PaymentService payments) {  // Spring finds the one PaymentService bean
        this.payments = payments;
    }
    public void placeOrder(BigDecimal amount) { payments.processPayment(amount); }
}
```

Without Spring it is one line in `main` : `new OrderService(new StripePayments())` . **The framework is a wiring convenience, not the principle**: `OrderService` was inverted the moment it accepted an abstraction.

4. Plug-in architecture — the core defines an abstraction; plug-ins implement it and install without changing the core (a media player's `AudioDecoder` ; MP3 and FLAC as plug-ins).

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/dip/plugin/ — contract owned by the core
public interface AudioDecoder { String extension(); void decode(String fileName); }
// Mp3Decoder ("mp3", prints "Decoding MP3 file: ..."), FlacDecoder ("flac", "Decoding FLAC file: ...")
public class MediaPlayer {           // the core: never edited for new formats
    private final Map<String, AudioDecoder> decoders = new HashMap<>();
    public void install(AudioDecoder decoder) { decoders.put(decoder.extension(), decoder); }
    public void play(String fileName) {
        String ext = fileName.substring(fileName.lastIndexOf('.') + 1);
        AudioDecoder decoder = decoders.get(ext);
        if (decoder == null) { System.out.println("No plug-in installed for ." + ext); return; }
        decoder.decode(fileName);
        System.out.println("Playing audio...");
    }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/dip/Main.java — the COMPOSITION ROOT (abridged)
new lld.ch04.dip.before.NotificationService().notifyUser("Your order shipped");
new NotificationService(new EmailSender()).notifyUser("u-42", "Your order shipped");
new NotificationService(new SmsSender()).notifyUser("u-42", "Your order shipped");
var recorder = new RecordingSender();
new NotificationService(recorder).notifyUser("u-7", "Test message");    // then prints recorder.sent()
locator.register("PayPal", new PayPalService());
new CheckoutFlow(locator).pay("PayPal", new BigDecimal("100.00"));
// player installs Mp3Decoder and FlacDecoder, then plays song.mp3, concert.flac, voice.ogg
```

Output:

```
=== 1. Before: NotificationService builds EmailService itself ===
Sending email: Your order shipped
=== 2. After: inject any NotificationSender ===
[email -> u-42] Your order shipped
[sms -> u-42] Your order shipped
test double captured: [u-7:Test message]
=== 3. Service locator ===
Processing payment via PayPal: $100.00
=== 4. Plug-in architecture ===
Decoding MP3 file: song.mp3
Playing audio...
Decoding FLAC file: concert.flac
Playing audio...
No plug-in installed for .ogg
```

DI vs plug-in architecture: both hand an implementation to a core, at different scales. **DI** is small-scale — how one class gets its collaborators. **Plug-in architecture** is system-level extensibility — whole modules, often from other teams, added independently and frequently discovered at run time (Java's `ServiceLoader`, OSGi — a Java module system built for plug-ins, IDE plug-in APIs).

DIP vs DI vs IoC — do not mix them up

Term	What it is	Kind	Example
Dependency Inversion (DIP)	Depend on abstractions; the policy owns the abstraction	A **principle** (what good structure looks like)	`NotificationService` depends on `NotificationSender`
Dependency Injection (DI)	Pass dependencies in from outside instead of creating them	A **technique** (one way to achieve DIP)	`new NotificationService(new SmsSender())`
Inversion of Control (IoC)	The framework calls your code, not the other way round ("don't call us, we'll call you" — the Hollywood Principle)	A broad **idea**; DI is one form of it	Spring creating beans; a servlet container (a Java web server such as Tomcat) calling `doGet`; JUnit calling your `@Test` methods
IoC container	A framework that performs DI for you	A **tool**	Spring `ApplicationContext`, Google Guice (a lightweight DI library)

They differ: **injection without inversion** — `new OrderService(new MySqlDatabase())` with a concrete `MySqlDatabase` parameter type is injected, yet the policy still depends on a detail; **inversion without a framework** — everything in this chapter: constructor + interface + a wiring `main`.

Stable vs volatile dependencies

DIP targets **volatile** dependencies — things that change often or that you want to fake (databases, networks, clocks, third-party APIs i.e. other companies' services, varying business rules). Depending directly on **stable** concrete classes is fine: `String`, `List`, `LocalDate`, `Math`; nobody wraps `String` in an interface. (Head First's DIP guidelines, like "no variable should hold a reference to a concrete class", are admitted ideals you will break; stable vs volatile is how you decide when.)

Why it matters: flexibility (swap implementations without touching business logic); maintainability (detail changes stay in the detail); testability (pass fakes and mocks — fakes that also record how they were called; no real database or mail server in unit tests).

Relation to the others: SRP — injected collaborators keep each class on its job; creating and configuring dependencies becomes the composition root's job; **OCP** — new implementations extend abstraction-dependent code without edits; **LSP** — every implementation must be a proper substitute, or injection is dangerous; **ISP** — the policy's abstraction should be the **smallest** role it needs.

How it works (step by step)

1. Find a high-level class naming or creating a volatile low-level class. 2. Write what it **needs**, in its own words (`send(recipient, message)`). 3. Make that an interface **in the high-level package**. 4. Make the low-level class implement it. 5. Inject the implementation (constructor by default). 6. Move all `new` calls for concrete classes to the composition root (`main`, a factory, or a DI container).

Trade-offs

You gain	You pay
Policy independent of technology	An interface per volatile dependency
Easy unit tests with fakes	Wiring code (or a framework and its learning curve)
Swappable implementations	Indirection: "go to implementation" takes an extra hop

When not: stable classes (`String`, collections, value objects); an interface with exactly one implementation forever and no test double; tiny scripts.

Common mistakes

- The interface in the **low-level** package (`mysql.MySqlRepository` and `mysql.Repository`): the policy still depends on the detail's package.
- An interface shaped by one vendor's API (`sendSmtpMessage(...)`) rather than the policy's need (`send(...)`), so changing vendors changes the interface.
- Breaking the **second** clause ("abstractions should not depend on details"): methods returning `java.sql.ResultSet` or throwing `javax.mail.MessagingException` drag detail types into the policy; use the policy's own types (`Optional<Order>`, a box that may hold an order; a domain exception, an error type named in business terms).
- "We use Spring, so we follow DIP" — Spring injects concrete classes just as happily.
- `new ConcreteThing()` inside a class "just this once".

Real-world examples

- **JDBC**: code depends on `java.sql.Connection` / `DataSource`; MySQL, PostgreSQL, Oracle drivers implement them; `DriverManager` finds drivers via `ServiceLoader`.
- **SLF4J**: the app depends on the logging facade; Logback or Log4j 2 is the plugged-in detail.
- **Spring** and **Jakarta EE CDI** (enterprise Java's built-in injection): IoC containers doing constructor injection.

- **JPA** (Java's standard object-to-SQL API): code uses `EntityManager`; Hibernate or EclipseLink implements it.
- **Hexagonal architecture (ports and adapters)**: the core defines *ports* (interfaces); *adapters* for HTTP, databases and queues (message queues, see System Design Fundamentals) implement them — DIP applied to a whole service.

In the interview

> **30-second answer:** "DIP says business logic should not depend on technical details; both depend on an abstraction, and the business side owns that abstraction. So `NotificationService` depends on a `NotificationSender` interface in its own package, and email and SMS senders implement it. I inject the implementation through the constructor and wire everything in `main`. That makes the service testable with a fake and lets me swap providers. DI is the technique; DIP is the principle; Spring is just a tool that does the wiring."

- *"Dependency inversion vs dependency injection?"* — Inversion is the principle (depend on abstractions); injection one technique (pass dependencies in). Injecting a concrete class is injection without inversion.
- *"Who owns the interface?"* — The high-level module that uses it.
- *"Is Service Locator OK?"* — It satisfies DIP but hides dependencies and fails late; I prefer constructor injection.

Self-check

1. **Q:** What is "inverted"? **A:** The source-code dependency: the detail implements an abstraction owned by the policy, instead of the policy importing the detail.
2. **Q:** `new OrderService(new MySqlDatabase())` with a `MySqlDatabase` parameter — DIP? **A:** No; injection of a concrete class, the policy still depends on the detail.
3. **Q:** A composition root? **A:** The one place (usually `main` or container config) where concrete classes are created and wired.
4. **Q:** Put `String` behind an interface? **A:** No; it is stable — DIP is for volatile dependencies.

TL;DR

Business code depends on interfaces it owns; details implement them; `main` (or a container) wires them. DI is the how, DIP the why, IoC containers the tool.

4.11 Refactoring one class through all five principles

In real code the principles seldom appear one at a time; they come **in a fixed sequence**, each exposing the need for the next. Here one order-checkout class — it validates, prices, saves and emails, quietly grown over two years — is refactored five times.

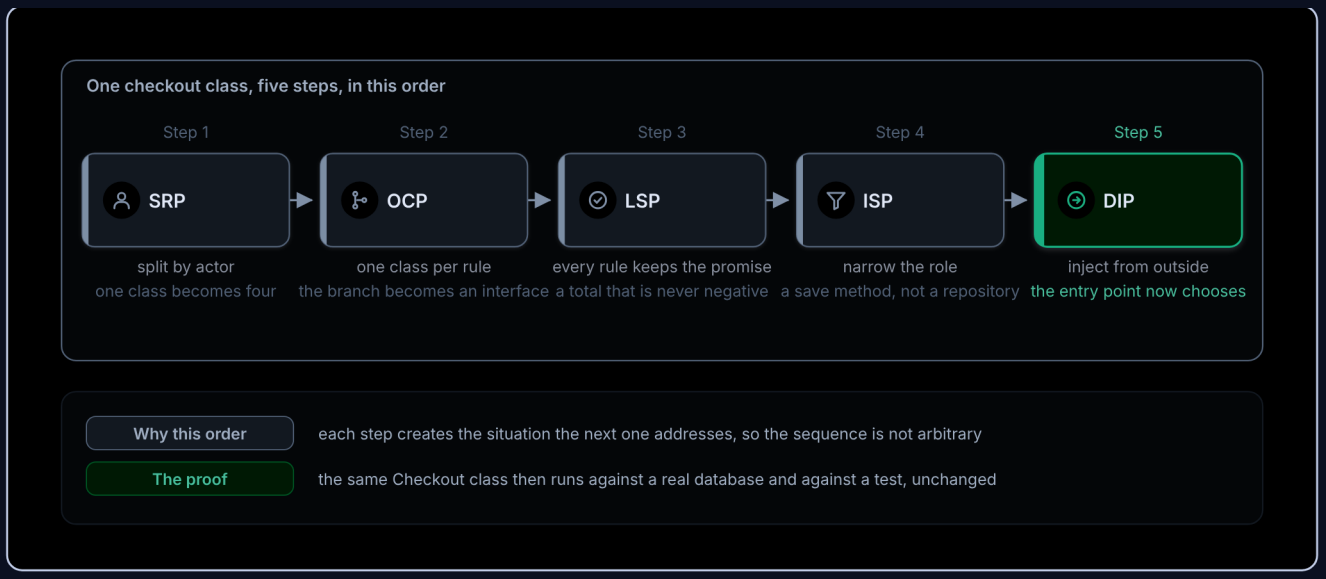


Figure — one checkout class, five steps: SRP, OCP, LSP, ISP, DIP, each creating the situation the next addresses (course diagram)

Step 0: the starting class

It runs correctly, yet each principle objects to something.

```
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/step0/ — record CustomerOrder(String orderId, String customerType, BigDecimal amount, String email)
public class OrderService {          // STEP 0 -- the class that grew quietly for two years. It works.
    public void process(CustomerOrder order) {
        // 1. Validation  (business-rules owner)
        if (order.amount().signum() <= 0) { System.out.println("Rejected: amount must be positive"); return; }
        // 2. Pricing, one branch per customer type  (finance)
        BigDecimal total = order.amount();
        if (order.customerType().equals("member")) total = total.multiply(new BigDecimal("0.90"));
        else if (order.customerType().equals("staff")) total = total.multiply(new BigDecimal("0.70"));
        total = total.setScale(2, RoundingMode.HALF_EVEN); // money: always 2 decimals
        // 3. Storage  (database team)
        System.out.println("INSERT INTO orders VALUES ('" + order.orderId() + "', " + total + ")");
        // 4. Telling the customer  (marketing)
        System.out.println("Emailing " + order.email() + ": your order total is " + total);
    }
}
```

Step 1: Single Responsibility — split by actor

Section of process	Requested by
Validation	The business-rules owner
Pricing	Finance
The `INSERT` statement	The database team
The email wording	Marketing

Four groups, one method: rewording the email redeploys pricing. Split by actor into `OrderValidator` (`isValid`: amount > 0), `PriceCalculator`, `OrderRepository` (`save` prints the `INSERT`) and `Notifier` (`send` prints the email):

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/step1/PriceCalculator.java — actor: finance. SRP met, but the branch remains -> OCP next
public BigDecimal total(CustomerOrder order) {
    BigDecimal total = switch (order.customerType()) {
        case "member" -> order.amount().multiply(new BigDecimal("0.90"));
        case "staff" -> order.amount().multiply(new BigDecimal("0.70"));
        default -> order.amount();
    };
    return total.setScale(2, RoundingMode.HALF_EVEN);
}
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/step1/Checkout.java — coordinates the four; still news them up itself
private final OrderValidator validator = new OrderValidator();   // likewise calculator, repository, notifier
public void process(CustomerOrder order) {
    if (!validator.isValid(order)) { System.out.println("Rejected: amount must be positive"); return; }
    BigDecimal total = calculator.total(order);
    repository.save(order, total);
    notifier.send(order, total);
}
```

Step 2: Open/Closed — one class per pricing rule

The branch on customer type survived the split, so a "student" rate would edit working code. Each rate gets a class behind `PricingRule`; from here the order carries no type string — the caller picks the rule:

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/Order.java
public record Order(String orderId, BigDecimal amount, String email) { }

// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/pricing/PricingRule.java
/**
 * STEP 2 (OCP): one class per rate; a new rate is a new class.
 * CONTRACT every implementation must keep (STEP 3, LSP):
 *   precondition : amount >= 0
 *   postcondition: result >= 0, rounded to 2 decimals   (a total is never negative)
 */
@FunctionalInterface
public interface PricingRule { BigDecimal apply(BigDecimal amount); }
// RegularPrice: amount.setScale(2, HALF_EVEN); MemberDiscount: x 0.90; StaffDiscount: x 0.70 (each rounded HALF_EVEN)

// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/step2/PriceCalculator.java — no branch; never learns how many rates exist
public BigDecimal total(Order order, PricingRule rule) { return rule.apply(order.amount()); }
```

A student rate is now one new class, no edits.

Step 3: Liskov Substitution — every rule keeps the promise

Several implementations of one interface raise the question whether each truly substitutes. Finance wants a **fixed** discount of 20; a naive version turns a 10 order into **−10** with no exception — saved, and perhaps later credited to a customer who never paid it. This is 4.8's postcondition/invariant rule: every pricing rule must guarantee **a never-negative total**. Fix: state the promise (in the `PricingRule` Javadoc), honour it in every rule, and verify with one contract test over every implementation:

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/pricing/CarelessFixedDiscount.java — LSP VIOLATION kept for the demo
@Override public BigDecimal apply(BigDecimal amount) { return amount.subtract(off).setScale(2,
RoundingMode.HALF_EVEN); }

// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/pricing/FixedDiscount.java — STEP 3 fix (constructor rejects off < 0)
@Override public BigDecimal apply(BigDecimal amount) {
    return amount.subtract(off).max(BigDecimal.ZERO).setScale(2, RoundingMode.HALF_EVEN);
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/step3/PricingRuleContract.java — ONE test against the interface, run for EVERY
implementation
private static final List<BigDecimal> SAMPLE_AMOUNTS = List.of(
        new BigDecimal("0.00"), new BigDecimal("10.00"), new BigDecimal("100.00"), new BigDecimal("250.00"));
public static boolean holds(PricingRule rule) {
    for (BigDecimal amount : SAMPLE_AMOUNTS) {
        BigDecimal total = rule.apply(amount);
        if (total.signum() < 0) {
            System.out.println("  " + rule.getClass().getSimpleName() + " broke the contract: apply(" + amount +
") = " + total);
            return false;
        }
    }
    System.out.println("  " + rule.getClass().getSimpleName() + " keeps the contract");
    return true;
}
```

Step 4: Interface Segregation — the checkout needs a save method, not a repository

Repositories accumulate methods (`save`, `findById`, `delete`, `listAll`) as other parts ask, but the checkout only **saves**; typed against the full repository, each new reporting query is one more method it depends on without calling. So describe the **role** it needs — an order saver, one method wide — and let the real repository play that role and others:

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/fin/
@FunctionalInterface public interface OrderSaver { void save(Order order, BigDecimal total); }  // owned by the
checkout
public interface OrderFinder { Optional<Order> findById(String orderId); List<Order> listAll(); } // reporting
role; checkout never sees it
@FunctionalInterface public interface OrderNotifier { void send(Order order, BigDecimal total); }
public class SqlOrderRepository implements OrderSaver, OrderFinder {   // grows, but plays two separate roles
    private final List<Order> table = new ArrayList<>();                // stands in for a real DB table
    @Override public void save(Order order, BigDecimal total) {
        table.add(order);
        System.out.println("  INSERT INTO orders VALUES ('" + order.orderId() + "', " + total + ")");
    }
    // findById filters table by id; listAll copies it
}
```

Step 5: Dependency Inversion — the entry point decides

The step-1 `Checkout` constructs its collaborators, so it names concrete classes (SQL repository, email notifier) and cannot run in a test without a database and mail server. Pass the abstractions in; the checkout names no concrete class and the entry point chooses:

```java
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/fin/ — InMemoryOrders implements OrderSaver (one method, because the role is
// one method wide): stores orderId + "=" + total, prints "  kept <id> in memory", saved() returns them.
// EmailNotifier prints "  emailing <email>: total <total>"; SilentNotifier prints "  (test run, no email sent)".

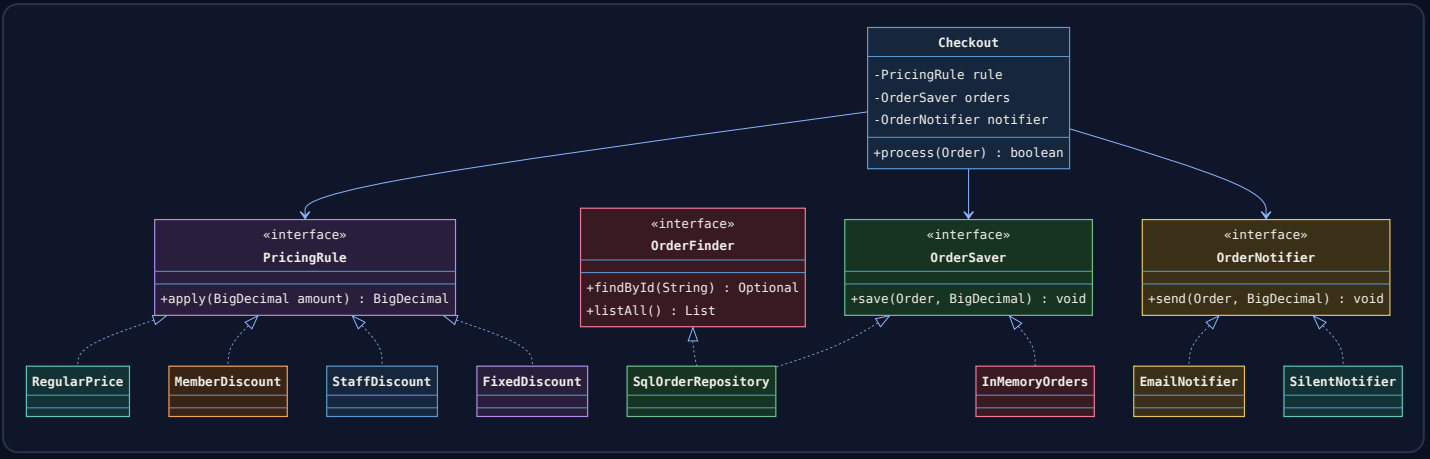
// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/fin/Checkout.java — STEP 5 (DIP): every volatile collaborator arrives from outside
public class Checkout {
    private final PricingRule rule;
    private final OrderSaver orders;
    private final OrderNotifier notifier;          // all three requireNonNull in the constructor
    public Checkout(PricingRule rule, OrderSaver orders, OrderNotifier notifier) { ... }
    public boolean process(Order order) {
        // Validation has not varied yet, so it stays a plain check (see "What we did not do").
        if (order.amount().signum() <= 0) { System.out.println("  rejected: amount must be positive"); return
false; }
        BigDecimal total = rule.apply(order.amount());
        orders.save(order, total);
        notifier.send(order, total);
        return true;
    }
}

// File: code/lld/ch04/checkout/Main.java (abridged; TWENTY = 20.00)
// Step 0: legacy OrderService on A-1 "regular" 100.00 and A-2 "staff" 100.00; Step 1: step-1 Checkout on A-2
// Step 2: calc.total(A-3 100.00, r) for RegularPrice, MemberDiscount, StaffDiscount
// Step 3: careless and correct FixedDiscount(TWENTY) on A-4 10.00; then PricingRuleContract.holds over
//         Regular, Member, Staff, FixedDiscount(TWENTY), CarelessFixedDiscount(TWENTY), printing the passing
count
var a9 = new Order("A-9", new BigDecimal("200.00"), "ada@example.com");
var db = new SqlOrderRepository();
new Checkout(new MemberDiscount(), db, new EmailNotifier()).process(a9);          // production wiring
System.out.println("  reporting side can still find it: " + db.findById("A-9").isPresent());
var fake = new InMemoryOrders();
new Checkout(new MemberDiscount(), fake, new SilentNotifier()).process(a9);       // test wiring, same class
System.out.println("  test double recorded " + fake.saved());
new Checkout(amount -> amount, (o, t) -> System.out.println("  saved " + o.orderId()),
        (o, t) -> System.out.println("  notified " + o.email())).process(a9);    // lambda wiring
new Checkout(new RegularPrice(), fake, new SilentNotifier())
        .process(new Order("A-10", BigDecimal.ZERO, "x@example.com"));
```

Output:

```
=== Step 0: the original class ===
INSERT INTO orders VALUES ('A-1', 100.00)
Emailing ada@example.com: your order total is 100.00
INSERT INTO orders VALUES ('A-2', 70.00)
Emailing grace@example.com: your order total is 70.00
=== Step 1: SRP -- split by actor (same output) ===
INSERT INTO orders VALUES ('A-2', 70.00)
Emailing grace@example.com: your order total is 70.00
=== Step 2: OCP -- one class per pricing rule ===
  RegularPrice -> 100.00
  MemberDiscount -> 90.00
  StaffDiscount -> 70.00
=== Step 3: LSP -- every rule must keep 'total >= 0' ===
  careless FixedDiscount(20) on 10 -> -10.00
  correct  FixedDiscount(20) on 10 -> 0.00
  RegularPrice keeps the contract
  MemberDiscount keeps the contract
  StaffDiscount keeps the contract
  FixedDiscount keeps the contract
  CarelessFixedDiscount broke the contract: apply(0.00) = -20.00
  4/5 rules are safe substitutes
=== Steps 4+5: ISP + DIP -- same Checkout, two wirings ===
Production wiring:
  INSERT INTO orders VALUES ('A-9', 180.00)
  emailing ada@example.com: total 180.00
  reporting side can still find it: true
Test wiring, same Checkout class:
  kept A-9 in memory
  (test run, no email sent)
  test double recorded [A-9=180.00]
Lambda wiring (roles are functional interfaces):
  saved A-9
  notified ada@example.com
  rejected: amount must be positive
```

One unmodified `Checkout` ran against production collaborators, test doubles and lambdas, **without being edited or subclassed** — what the five steps bought.



Reading the five steps back

Step	The question it asked	What changed
SRP	Who might request changes here?	The single class split into four, one per actor
OCP	What breaks when a new case shows up?	Each pricing branch turned into its own class
LSP	Does each rule work when called through the interface?	All rules guarantee the total never drops below zero
ISP	Is the caller tied to more than it calls?	Checkout depends on one save method rather than a whole repository
DIP	Who decides which concrete class is used?	The entry point decides, not the checkout

The sequence has a reason: SRP first, because the varying point stays hidden until each class has one job; OCP then introduces an interface; LSP matters once it has a second implementation; ISP when new callers (reporting) appear; DIP last, because inversion needs abstractions to point at. Each step sets up the next — why the five are learned as a group.

What we did not do

- **Not every principle on every class:** `Order` stays a plain record without an interface — nothing made it vary.
- **Not closed against every change:** a new validation rule still edits `Checkout`, fine while validation is stable; the third validation request is the day it gets pricing's treatment.
- **Not everything injected:** `Order` and `BigDecimal` arithmetic are stable, used directly.

Pre-emptively applying all five everywhere turns a small clear program into a confusing one. **Each step was triggered by an actual change request, never by a checklist.**

Self-check

1. **Q:** Why SRP before OCP here? **A:** Until pricing had its own class, the varying part (the type branch) was buried in a four-job method.
2. **Q:** Step 3's contract? **A:** Every `PricingRule` returns ≥ 0 for any amount ≥ 0.
3. **Q:** Why is `OrderSaver` one method wide? **A:** The checkout only saves; the full repository would tie it to reporting methods it never calls.
4. **Q:** Proof the design worked? **A:** One `Checkout` ran under three wirings (production, test doubles, lambdas) unedited.

TL;DR

SRP → OCP → LSP → ISP → DIP, each triggered by a real change. Proof: one class, several wirings, zero edits.

4.12 SOLID and design patterns

Most classic patterns (Chapters 8–11) exist because of these principles: **the principles say what good structure looks like; the patterns are named, reusable ways to produce it.**

Pattern	Principle(s) it serves	How
Strategy	OCP, DIP	A varying algorithm behind an interface (`InvoiceGenerator`, `PricingRule`)
Template Method	OCP	A fixed skeleton in a base class; subclasses fill in hook steps
Decorator	OCP, SRP	Adds behaviour by wrapping, without modifying the original class
Adapter	DIP, ISP	Lets a caller keep depending on the interface it already owns while a foreign class is plugged in
Factory Method / Abstract Factory	DIP, OCP	Keeps callers away from concrete constructors; the `switch` lives in one place
Observer	OCP, DIP	New reactions are new subscribers; the subject depends only on a listener interface
Composite	LSP, OCP	Leaves and groups share one interface, so callers treat them the same
Proxy	SRP, OCP	Adds access control, caching or laziness (creating things only when first needed) in a separate class
Command	SRP, OCP	Each request is its own object; new commands are new classes
Visitor	OCP (for operations)	Easy to add operations, hard to add element types: OCP along a different axis
Null Object	LSP	A do-nothing implementation that still keeps the contract, instead of `null` checks

Head First Design Patterns states several as "OO design principles": **encapsulate what varies**, **favour composition over inheritance**, **program to an interface, not an implementation**, **classes should be open for extension but closed for modification** (Decorator chapter), **depend upon abstractions, do not depend upon concrete classes** (Factory chapter's DIP), **a class should have only one reason to change** (Iterator/Composite chapter). *Clean Code* covers SRP and "organising for change" in its classes chapter; "isolating from change" is DIP by another name.

4.13 SOLID in the design interview

Keeping the design honest: five checks over your class diagram

In an OOD round SOLID is most useful as **five quick checks over the diagram you just drew** (about five minutes): an "and" in a class's one-sentence responsibility (S), a `switch` over a type (O), a subclass refusing a parent method — re-read inheritance arrows at the end, they get added late (L), empty method bodies in a wide interface (I), a high-level class naming a low-level one, e.g. `ParkingLot` constructing a `CreditCardTransaction` (D). Calibration: **two findings is a good pass, five means rework, zero means you did not look**; S and O earn most credit, and SOLID is a set of checks, not a score — no single-implementer interfaces, no splitting beyond the one-sentence test. The full checklist, the signal figure and a worked parking-lot pass are in §1.8.

Naming a design problem out loud

Interviewers rarely ask for OCP's definition. They ask for a parking lot, a rate limiter (caps requests per time window) or a file store and judge whether you can **explain the reasons behind your design's shape** — separating memorised acronyms from use. Weighed most important first:

1. **Can you spot and name a problem in the code in front of you** — an ever-growing `if/else` on a type field — in one crisp sentence?
2. **Can you defend a choice?** "SOLID says so" earns nothing; "pricing rules change every quarter and I don't want each change to reopen the checkout" earns a lot.

3. **Do you know when to hold back?** The senior marker: adding abstractions is easy; choosing which to skip is rarer.

A sentence pattern that works — three things, in order: (1) **what you see** — a specific fact about the code; (2) **what it will cost** — the future change it makes painful; (3) **what you would do, and what that costs you** — the part most people omit, and what makes an answer sound experienced rather than memorised.

Example: a `ReportGenerator` that formats a report, writes it to disk and emails it.

- Weak: "It breaks SRP since it does three things; I'd make three classes." Correct, but sounds like last night's reading.
- Strong: "Three different owners can request changes here: marketing controls the wording, the platform team controls where files land, and the email owners control delivery. That means a copy edit redeploys the file-writing code. I'd pull formatting apart from delivery, likely into a formatter and a sink (the destination the output is sent to). It costs me two more classes and a little wiring, which pays off because the wording changes frequently." Actors, pain, fix, price, and a decision.

Observation before principle. "`Reporting` implements nine methods but calls only two of them, which is an interface segregation problem" shows you noticed something; opening "This violates ISP because…" sounds like hunting for a place to use the acronym. Still name the principle at the end — it hands the interviewer a label for the write-up.

"Would you always do that?" checks you know your suggestion's price; rarely a trap, and the answer is almost never "yes":

- *Splitting classes:* "No. If the two parts would always be edited together, I've just created an extra file. I split when two different people would ask for two different changes."
- *Extension points:* "No. I keep the `if/else` until a second or third case actually appears. An extension point built in advance is usually wasted effort and makes the code harder to follow in the meantime."
- *Interfaces:* "Only where behaviour varies or a test needs a substitute. An interface with a single implementation and no fake is just one more file."

Treating a principle as unconditional is the quickest way to show you have never applied it.

Three things that cost marks: reciting definitions untied to the whiteboard code; **applying everything at once** (five interfaces for a forty-line problem looks inexperienced — real systems earn their abstractions); **naming the wrong principle confidently** (mixing up cohesion and coupling reveals second-hand vocabulary; when unsure, describe in plain words — an accurate unnamed description beats a wrong name).

A one-minute drill for any class you own: (1) Who can ask me to change it, and which parts belong to whom? (2) What is the likely next feature, and would I edit this class for it? (3) Which dependencies could I not replace in a test, and does it matter? Practising on your own code beats rereading definitions; the interview asks it of code you have never seen.

> **In the interview:** describe before you label, and end every recommendation with its cost, for example: "I'd move delivery into its own class; that costs a file and some wiring, and in return a wording change no longer touches file handling."

4.14 Common questions about SOLID (with short answers)

Give the two-line version and stop; expand only if asked — long unprompted definitions eat design time.

1. SRP vs ISP? *Whom* each guards: **SRP the class** doing the work (more than one reason to change?), **ISP the caller** at a boundary (depends on methods it never calls?). `Printer` with `print` / `scan` / `fax` is ISP for a basic printer; a `ReportService` that formats and emails is SRP with no interface in sight. SRP splits classes, ISP splits interfaces; either breaks without the other.

2. When would you not apply these principles? Have a concrete answer — it separates candidates: nothing has varied yet (an extension point for a case that never arrives adds indirection for nothing); small or throwaway code; an arbitrary split (you cannot name the two groups requesting changes); hurting readability (five four-line files vs one twenty-line file). *Framing:* each principle buys **flexibility later** with **simplicity now**; if "later" never comes, the price was wasted.

3. Is SOLID still relevant, given the criticism? Yes, and knowing the criticism helps. The principles came from large OO systems and are often taught as absolutes to people building small ones, yielding layers of single-implementation interfaces; some argue plainer advice (small functions, explicit dependencies) captures most of the benefit. What outlasts it is the **vocabulary and the diagnosis** — a compact way to explain why code will resist change, in any language or paradigm. *Short:* valuable as diagnostics, misleading as rules.

4. Dependency inversion vs dependency injection? Inversion is the **principle** (depend on abstractions); injection one **technique** (supply dependencies from outside). Injecting a concrete class is injection without inversion; a hand-written constructor with no framework is inversion without a container; Spring only automates wiring (4.10).

5. An LSP violation? Prefer one from your work; else Square/Rectangle, explaining the rule, not just the story: `Rectangle` lets callers set width and height separately, `Square` cannot, so `Rectangle` code computes a wrong area silently. A subclass must not require more, guarantee less, or break an assumption; an exception is merely the most obvious break.

6. Does OCP mean never editing a file? No: one more variation *of a supported kind* is added without touching existing code; bug fixes, refactorings and extension-point changes still edit. Closure is relative to a kind of change (4.7's invoice: closed to formats, open to discount rules — the right trade then).

7. Composition over inheritance, always? A guideline: inherit when the child truly is a kind of the parent and keeps every promise; compose when behaviour differs or a subclass would reject an inherited method (an override that throws, does nothing, or says "don't call this on X").

8. How do the principles relate to patterns? Many patterns are the principles made concrete: **Strategy** = OCP for a varying algorithm; **Adapter** keeps a caller on the interface it knows; **Decorator** adds behaviour without editing the wrapped class; **Factory** hides concrete constructors (DIP). See 4.12.

9. Which principle is violated most often? Two defensible answers: **SRP**, because classes grow by small, sensible-looking additions (nobody sets out to write a two-thousand-line service); and **ISP in reverse** (over-splitting) — an interface per method, meeting the rule's wording while adding names and removing no dependency. Citing the second shows you have watched the principles misused, not just ignored.

> **Interview tip:** if invited deeper, expand "when would you not apply this?" and "dependency inversion vs dependency injection" — most candidates stay vague on both. The strongest SOLID answers **admit a limit**: saying where a principle stops paying off is what sounds like real maintenance experience.

4.15 Over-engineering: the warnings in one place

Warning sign	Principle misapplied	What to do instead
Classes named `XHelper`, `XUtils`, `XManager2` after a split	SRP	Split by actor; each new class needs a name that stands alone
Six small classes that always change in the same commit	SRP (over-split) — *Shotgun Surgery*	Merge them back
An interface + factory + registry for a single implementation	OCP — *Speculative Generality*	Write the `if`; refactor at the second or third case (rule of three)
A subclass that "works" by silently doing nothing	LSP	Raise a better parent or use composition
One interface per method; the same object passed three times	ISP (over-split)	Group by caller into role interfaces
An interface in front of `String`-like stable classes	DIP	Invert only volatile dependencies
A DI container for a 200-line program	DIP	Wire by hand in `main`

YAGNI ("You Aren't Gonna Need It", from Extreme Programming — an agile method of small frequent releases and heavy testing) is the counterweight to all of SOLID: build nothing for requirements you do not have. SOLID says **what** a good seam looks like; YAGNI says **when** to cut it: when a real change asks.

Chapter self-check

1. **Q:** Each principle in one line? **A:** SRP: one reason (actor) to change. OCP: add behaviour by adding code, not editing. LSP: subtypes substitutable for their base types. ISP: no caller depends on methods it does not use. DIP: policy and details both depend on abstractions owned by the policy.
2. **Q:** A `switch (vehicleType)` computing parking fees? **A:** OCP: fees behind a `ParkingRate` interface, one class per rate (Strategy), chosen at the edge.
3. **Q:** `ReadOnlyList extends ArrayList` throwing on `add`? **A:** LSP (new exception / refused bequest); prefer composition or a read-only interface.
4. **Q:** `Robot` implements `Worker` with `work()` and `eat()`? **A:** ISP: the robot must implement `eat()`; split into `Workable` and `Eater` roles by caller.
5. **Q:** `OrderService` has `private final MySqlOrderDao dao = new MySqlOrderDao();` — two problems? **A:** Tight coupling / DIP violation (names and creates a volatile detail) and untestable without MySQL; inject an `OrderSaver` interface owned by the service.
6. **Q:** Why is Square/Rectangle worse than `Penguin.fly()` throwing? **A:** It is silent: the program continues with a wrong result.
7. **Q:** Coupling vs cohesion? **A:** Cohesion: how well one class's insides belong together; coupling: how much one class depends on another.
8. **Q:** Usual order during a refactor, and why? **A:** SRP → OCP → LSP → ISP → DIP; each creates the situation the next addresses.
9. **Q:** DIP vs DI vs IoC? **A:** Principle (depend on abstractions); technique (pass dependencies in); broader idea that a framework calls your code — IoC containers perform DI.
10. **Q:** When not to add an interface? **A:** One implementation, no test double, nothing varied; or a stable dependency.

TL;DR

- **SOLID** = five names for the ways code becomes painful to change. Use them to diagnose, not as a checklist.

- **SRP**: one actor per class. Split by *who asks for changes*, not by method count. High cohesion inside, and check coupling after every split.
- **OCP**: put the part that *has* varied behind an interface; add variants as classes (Strategy). A class is closed against a specific kind of change.
- **LSP**: a subclass must accept at least as much, promise at least as much, keep invariants and history, and throw nothing new. Inheritance follows promises, not real-world categories. Prefer composition when a subclass would refuse a method.
- **ISP**: one role interface per kind of caller. Throwing methods mean too wide; the same object passed three times means too thin.
- **DIP**: policy owns the abstraction; details implement it; `main` wires them. DI is the technique, IoC containers are the tool.
- **Order**: SRP → OCP → LSP → ISP → DIP, each triggered by a real change.
- **In the interview**: observation → cost → fix → price of the fix. Always know when *not* to apply a principle.